

Chap 5B

Trees

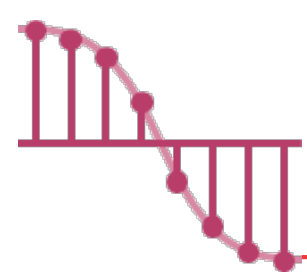
海大資訊工程系

蔡東佐



Outline

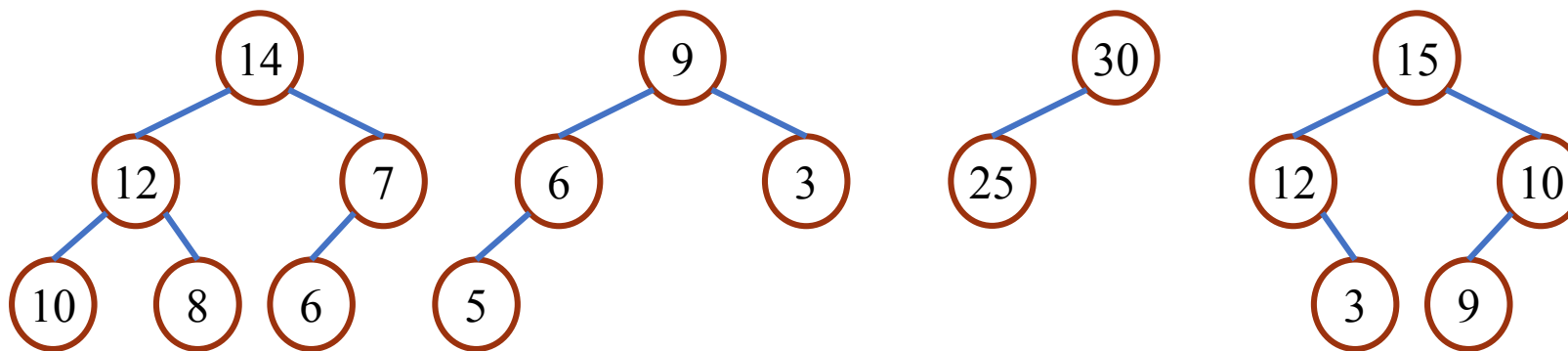
- Heaps (堆積)
- Binary Search Trees (二元搜尋樹)
- Selection Trees (選取樹)
- Forests (樹林)
- Representation of Disjoint Sets (集合的表示法)
- Counting Binary Trees (二元樹計數)



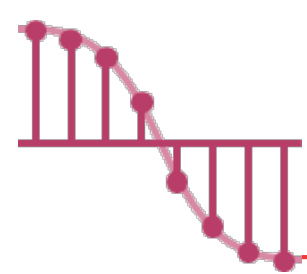
Definition of a Max Tree

➤ A **max tree** is a tree in which

✓ the **key value** in each node is **no smaller** than the key values in its children if any.



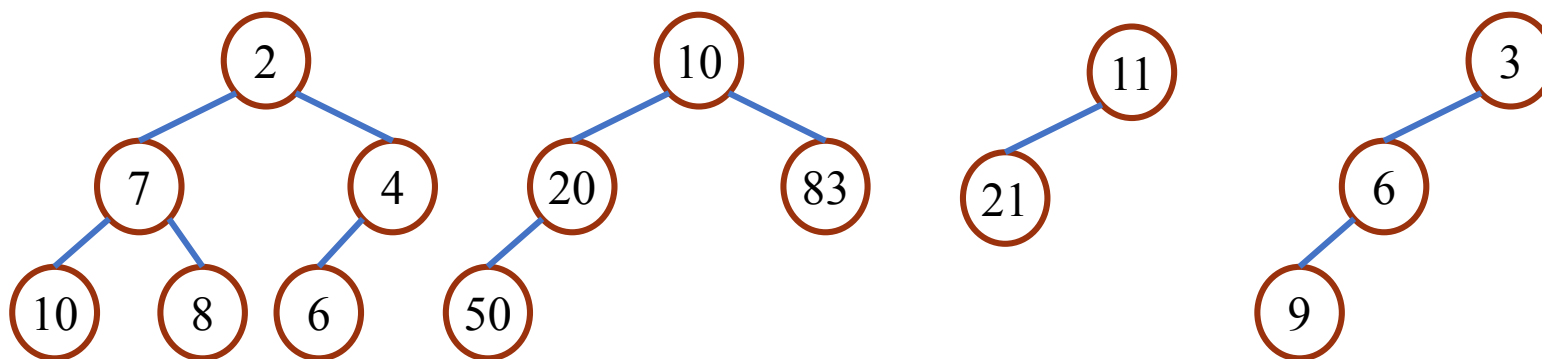
Max Trees



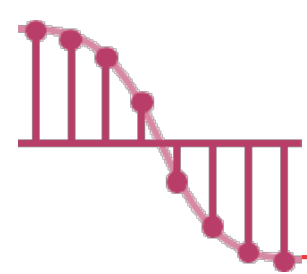
Definition of a Min Tree

➤ A **min tree** is a tree in which

✓ the **key value** in each node is **no larger** than the key values in its children if any.

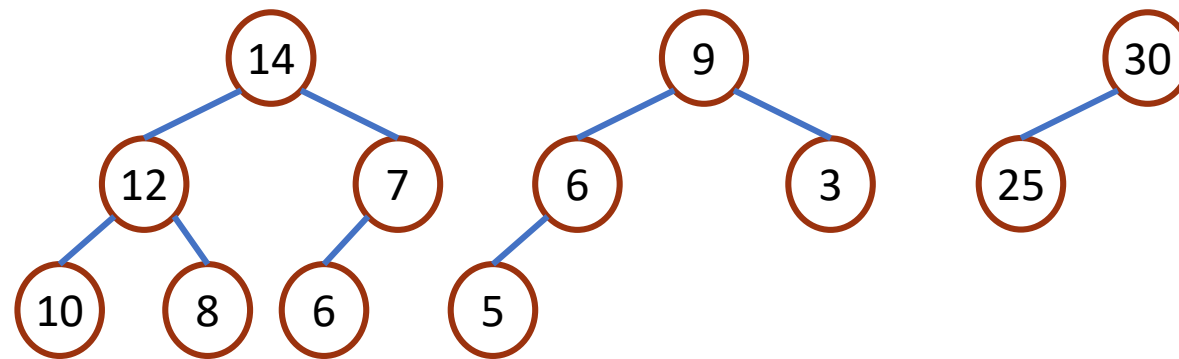


Min Trees

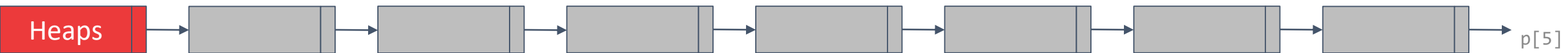


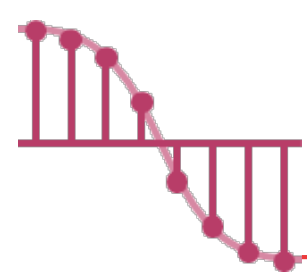
Definition of a Max Heap

➤ A **max heap** is a **complete** binary tree that is also a max tree.



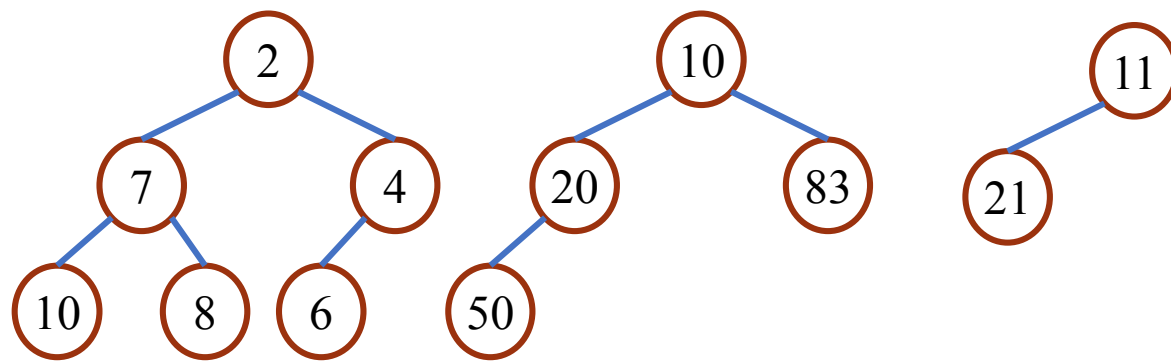
Max Heaps





Definition of a Min Heap

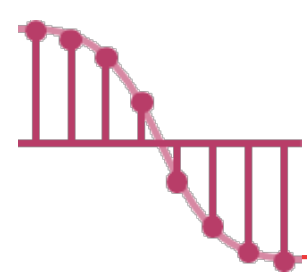
➤ A **min heap** is a **complete** binary tree that is also a min tree.



Min Heaps

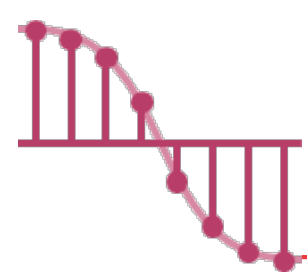


完全二元樹 (C. P. T):
只有最下面 2 層結點的度數
可以小於 2, 且最下面一層的結點
都集中在該層左邊的連續位置上



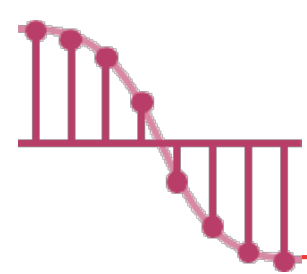
Heaps and Priority Queues

- Heaps are frequently used to implement **priority queues**.
- In this kind of queue,
 - ✓ the element to be **deleted** is the one with highest (or lowest) priority.
 - ✓ at any time, an element with arbitrary priority can be **inserted** into the queue.



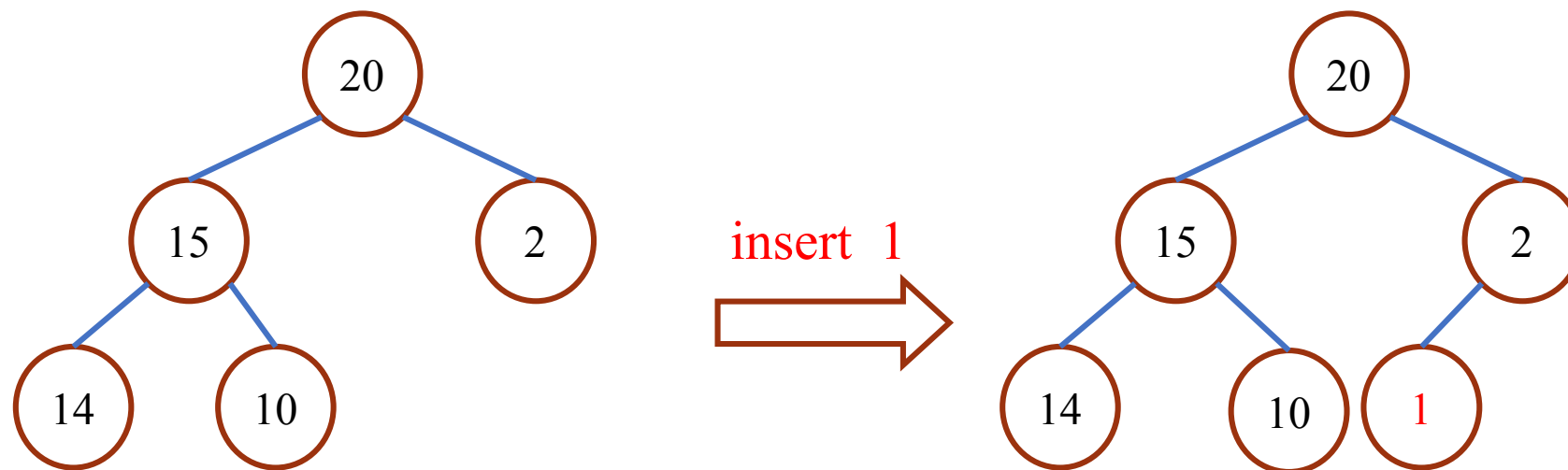
Why Priority Queue ?

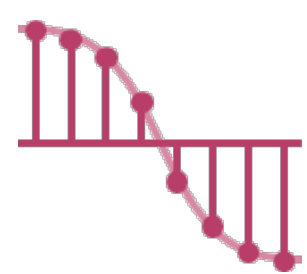
- Example 5.1: There is one machine that can be used by all customers.
- ✓ Case 1: Each customer pays **the same money** but needs **different time** to use it.
 - Use **min priority queue** to maximize the benefit.
 - ✓ Case 2: Each customer needs **the same time** but pays **different amount of money** for using it.
 - Use **max priority queue** to maximize the benefit.



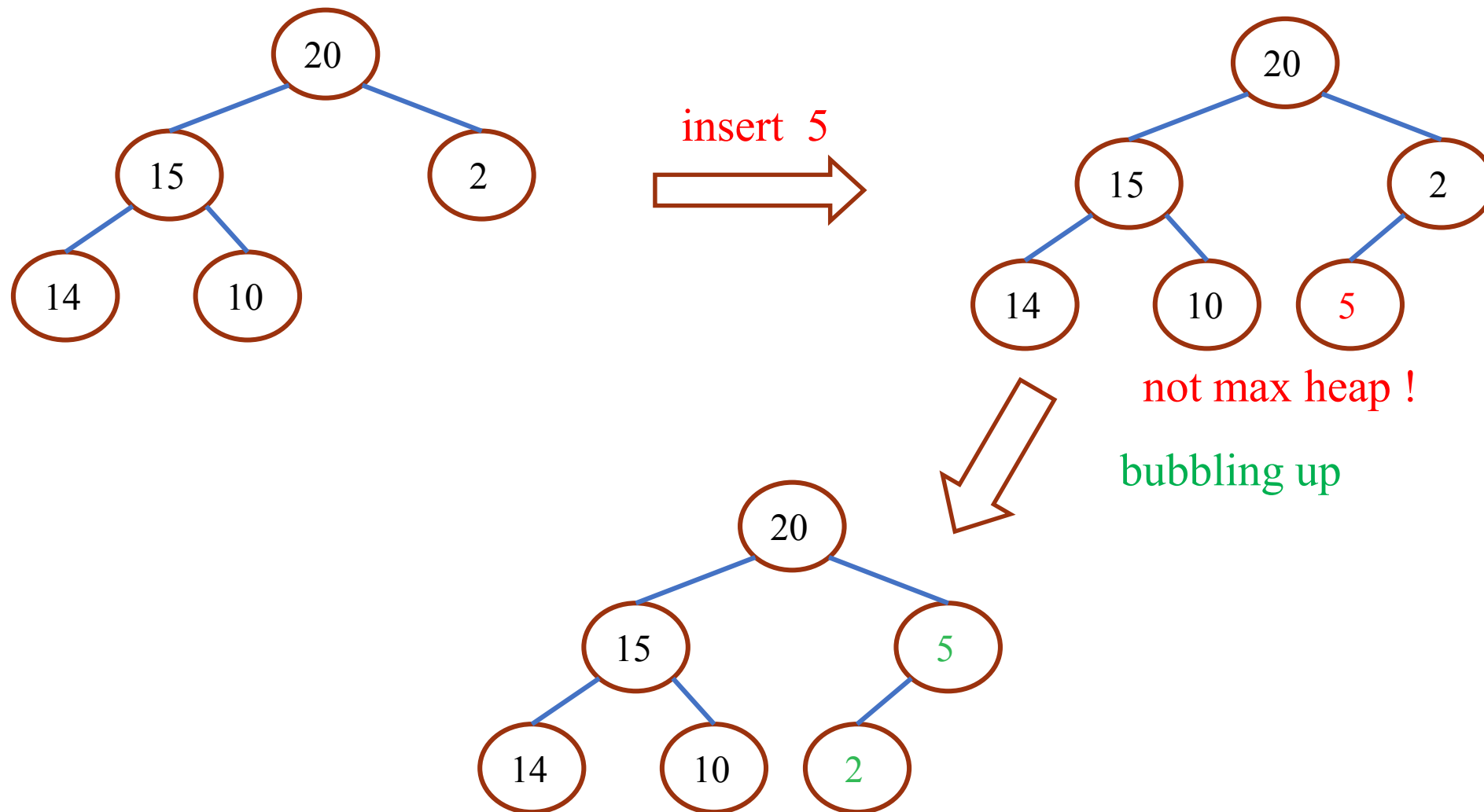
Insertion into a Max Heap

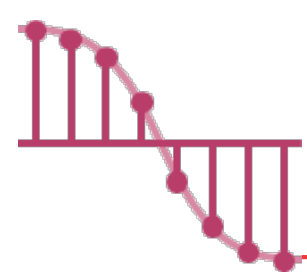
- In order to determine the correct place for the element that is being inserted, we use a **bubbling up** process.
- A **bubbling up** process begins at the new node of the tree and moves toward the root.



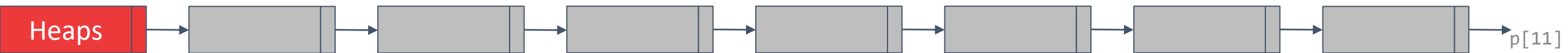
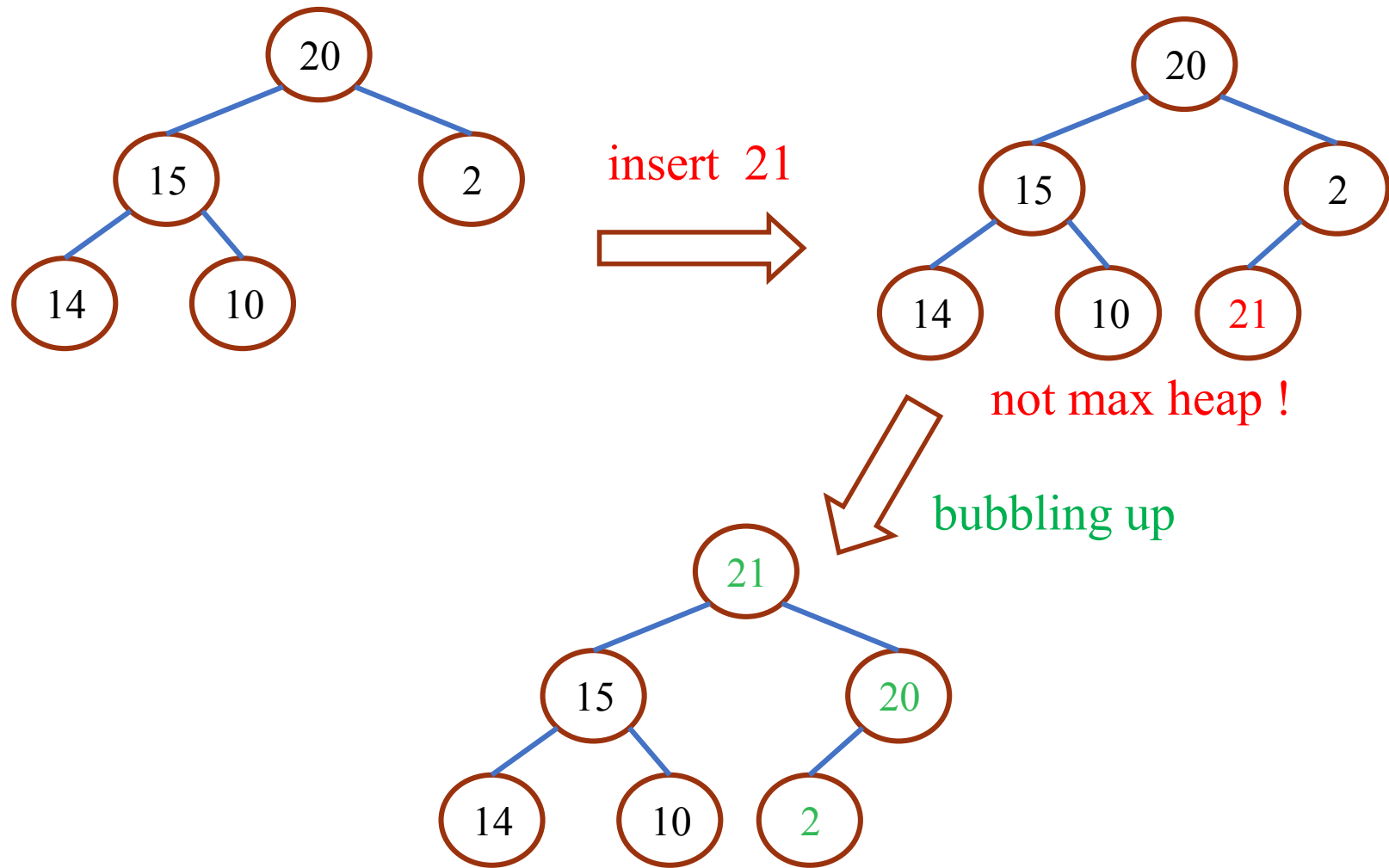


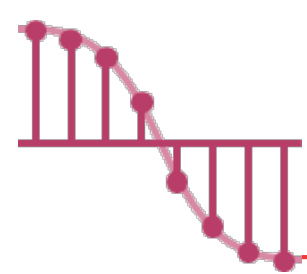
Insertion into a Max Heap – example 1





Insertion into a Max Heap – example 2

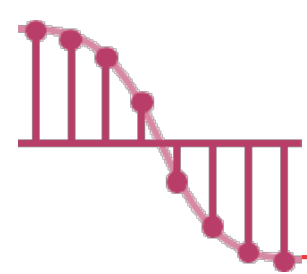




Program 5.13: Insert into a max heap _{1/2}

➤ We assume that the heap is created using the following C declarations:

```
#define MAX_ELEMENTS 200 /* maximum heap size+1 */  
#define HEAP_FULL (n) (n == MAX_ELEMENTS - 1)  
#define HEAP_EMPTY (n) (!n)  
typedef struct {  
    int key;  
    /* other fields */  
} element;  
element heap[MAX_ELEMENTS];  
int n = 0;
```



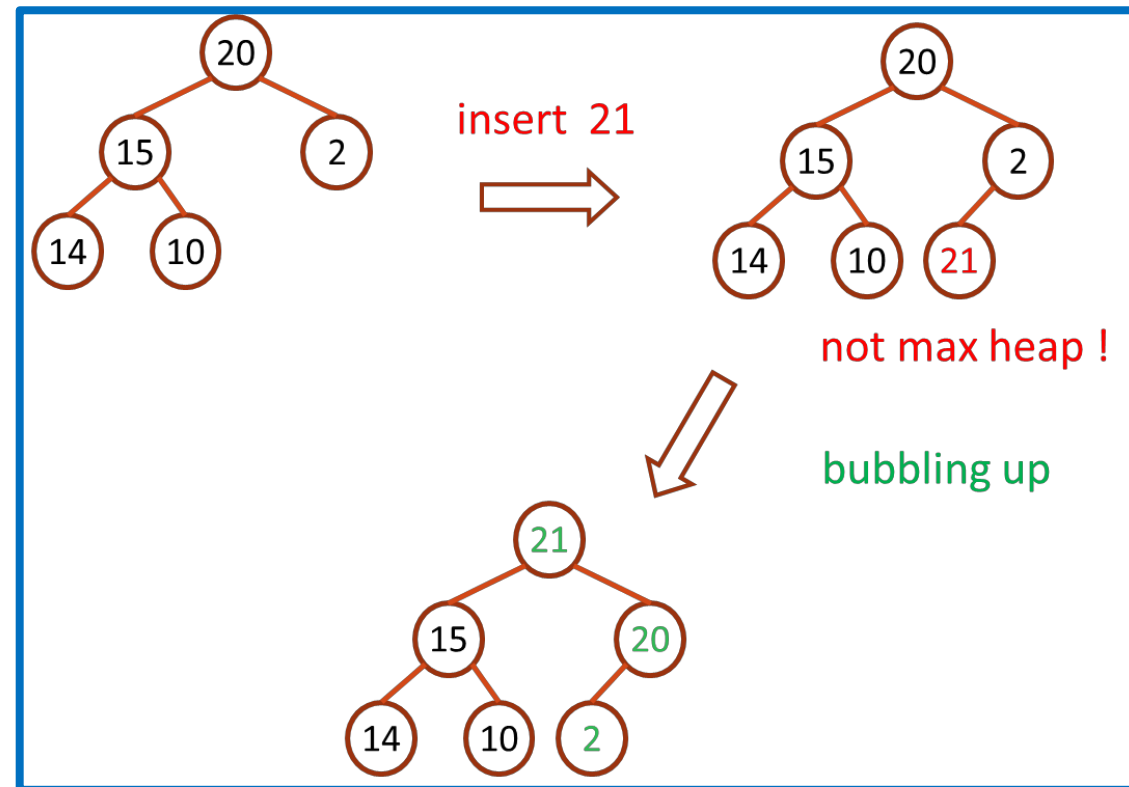
Program 5.13: Insert into a max heap _{2/2}

```
➤ void push (element item, int *n)
{
    /* insert item into a max heap of current size *n */
    int i;
    if (HEAP_FULL (*n)) {
        printf("The heap is full. \n");
        exit (EXIT_FAILURE);
    }
    i = ++ (*n);
    while ((i != 1) && (item.key > heap[i/2].key)) {
        heap[i] = heap [i/2];
        i /= 2;
    }
    heap[i] = item;
}
```

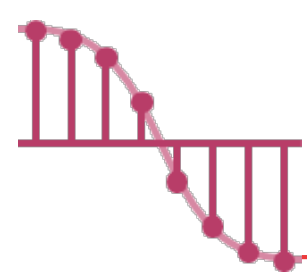
$O(1)$

$O(\log_2 n)$

$O(1)$

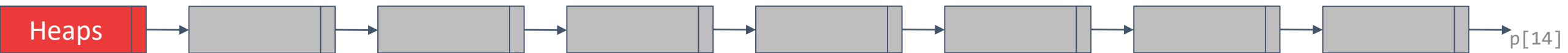


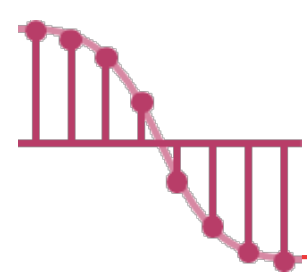
➤ The time complexity of the insertion function is $O(\log_2 n)$.



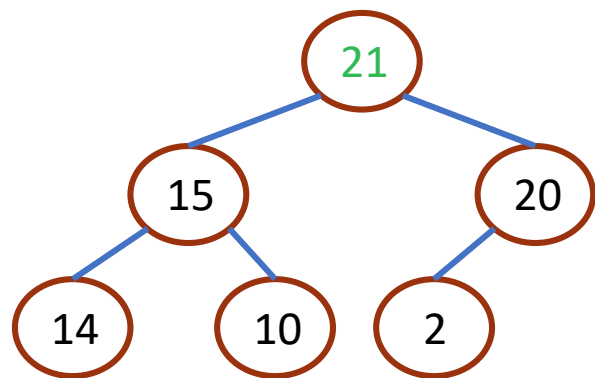
Deletion from a Max Heap _{1/4}

- When an element is to be deleted from a max heap, it is **always** taken from the root of the heap.
- The steps of deletion from a Max heap:
 - ✓ delete the root node
 - ✓ insert the **last** node into the root
 - ✓ use the bubbling up process to ensure that the resulting heap remains a max heap

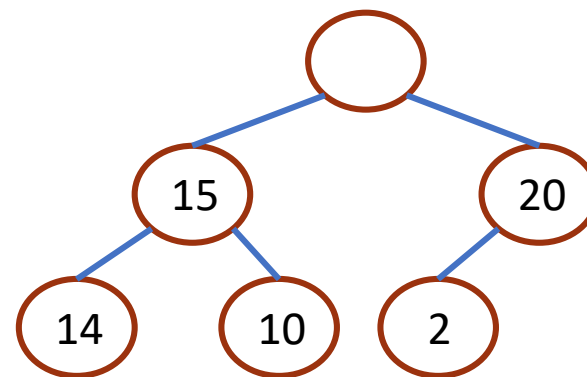




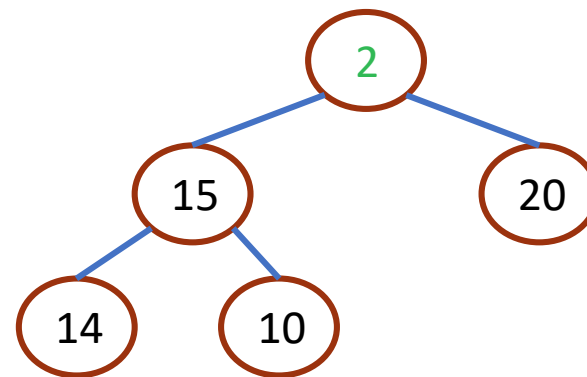
Deletion from a Max Heap _{2/4}



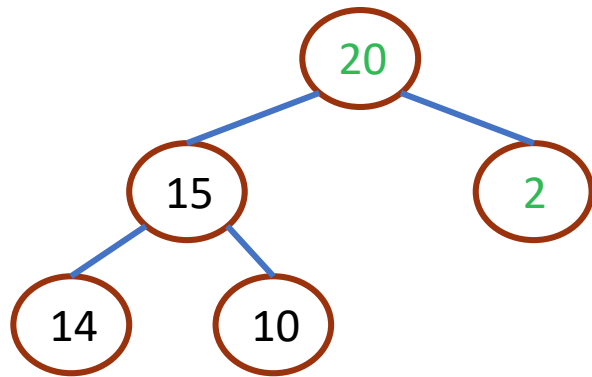
delete 21



insert 2 to the root

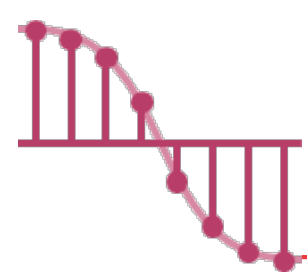


bubbling up

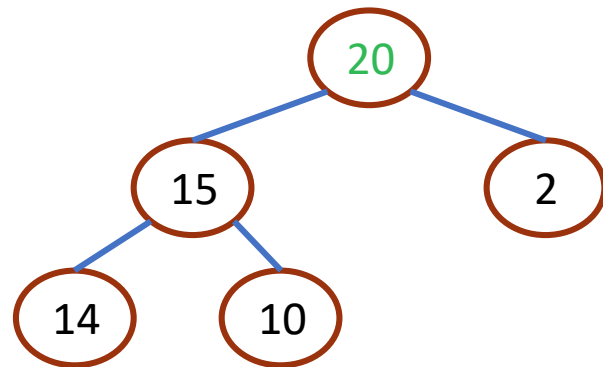


Heaps

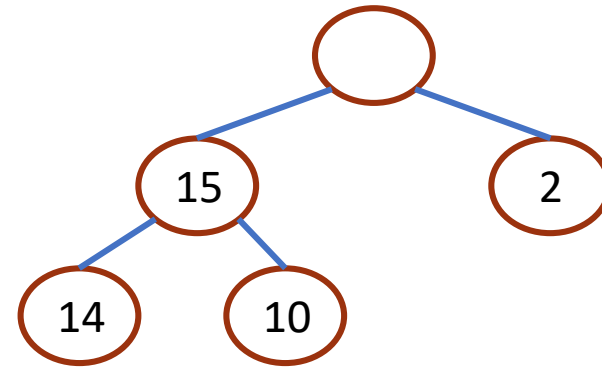
p[15]



Deletion from a Max Heap _{3/4}



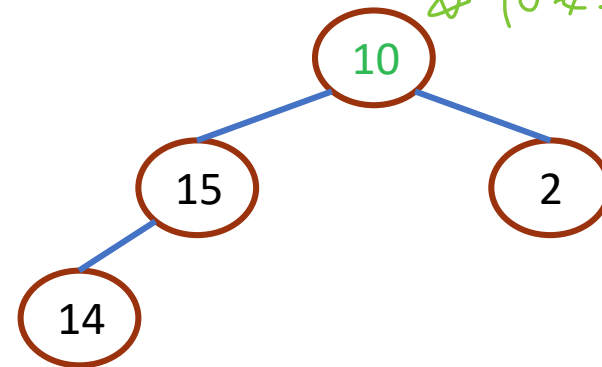
delete 20



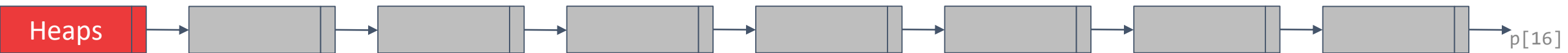
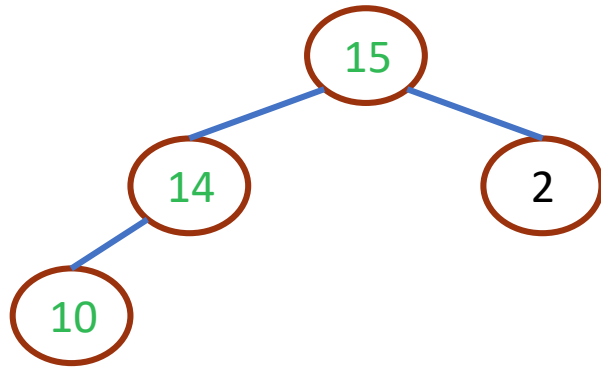
insert 10 to the root



✱ 10要上來



bubbling up



Deletion from a Max Heap 4/4

```
element pop(int *n)
{ /* delete element with the highest key from the
  heap */
```

```
  int parent, child;
  element item, temp;
  if (HEAP_EMPTY(*n)) {
    fprintf(stderr, "The heap is empty\n");
    exit(EXIT_FAILURE);
  }
```

```
  /* save value of the element with the highest key */
```

```
  item = heap[1];
```

```
  /* use last element in heap to adjust heap */
```

```
  temp = heap[(*n)--];
```

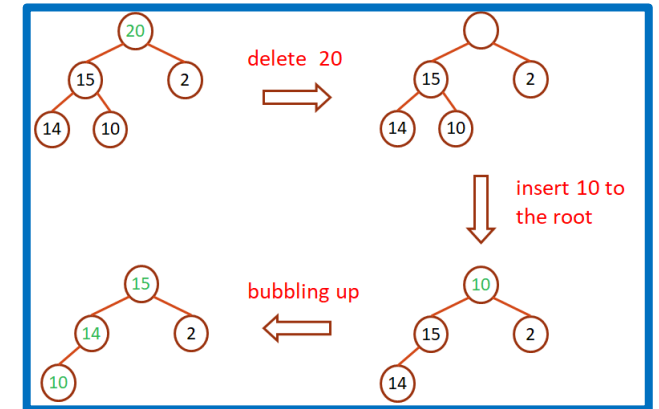
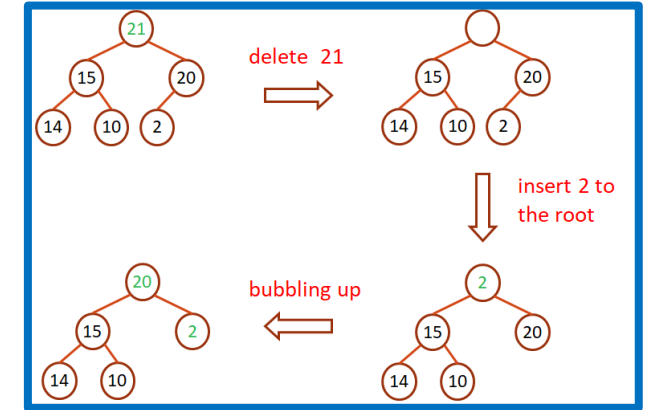
```
  parent = 1;
```

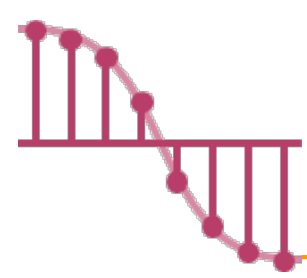
```
  child = 2;
```

$O(\log_2 n)$

```
  while (child <= *n) {
    /* find the larger child of the current parent */
    if ((child < *n) && (heap[child].key < heap[child+1].key))
      child++;
    if (temp.key >= heap[child].key) break;
    /* move to the next lower level */
    heap[parent] = heap[child];
    parent = child;
    child *= 2;
  }
  heap[parent] = temp;
  return item;
}
```

$O(1)$

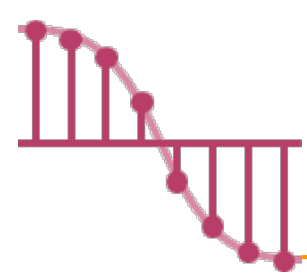




Binary Search Tree

- Binary search tree provides a **better performance** than any of the data structures studied so far when the functions to be performed are search, insertion and deletion.

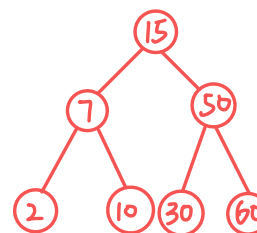




Binary Search Tree

➤ A **binary search tree** is a binary tree. It may be empty. If it is not empty, then it satisfies the following properties:

- ✓ Each node has **exactly one key** and the keys in the tree are **distinct**.
- ✓ The keys (if any) in the **left** subtree are **smaller** than the key in the root.
- ✓ The keys (if any) in the **right** subtree are **larger** than the key in the root.
- ✓ The left and right subtrees are also binary search tree.



if have a number list:
2 7 10 15 30 50 60
construct a b tree

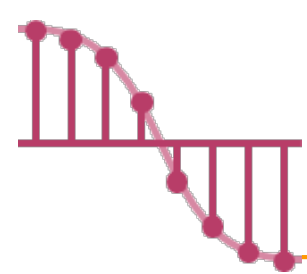
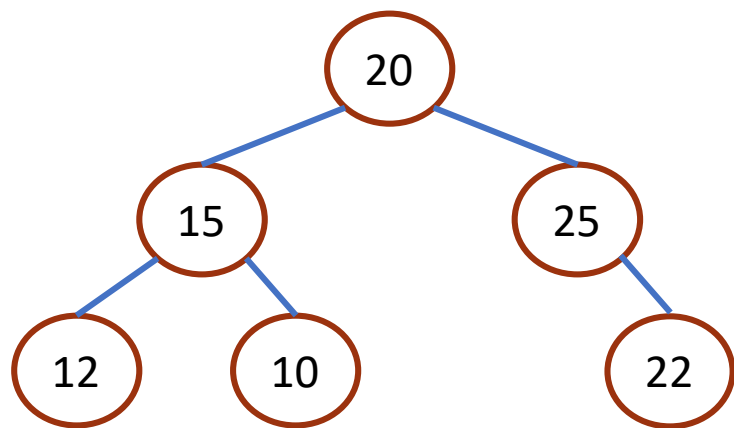


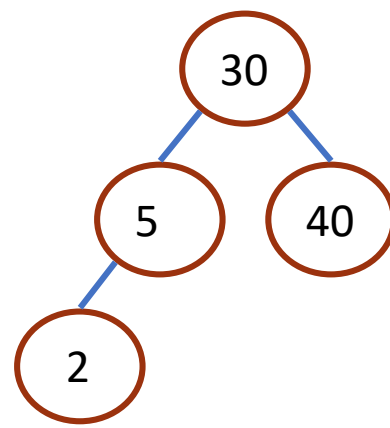
Figure 5.29 Binary trees

- Figure (a) is not a binary search tree.
- Figures (b) and (c) are binary search trees.



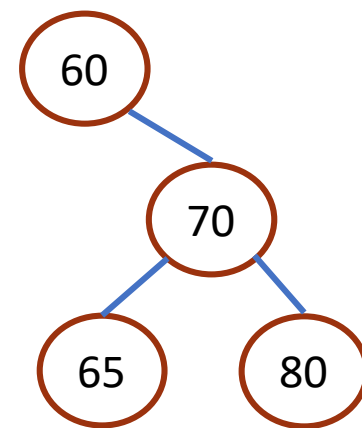
(a)

not a binary search tree



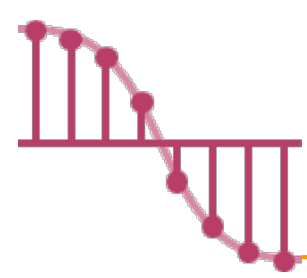
(b)

a binary search tree



(c)

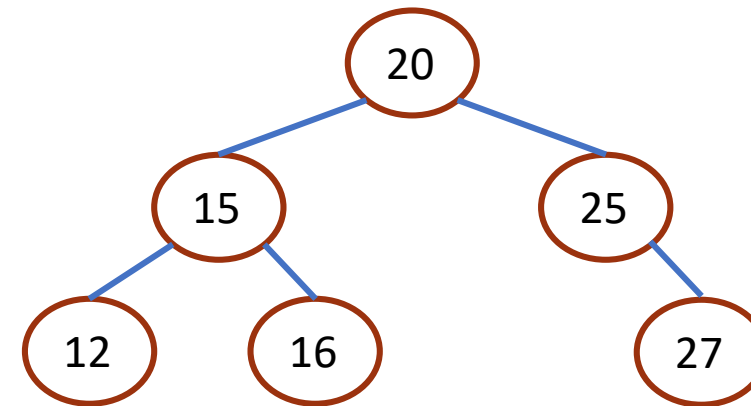
a binary search tree



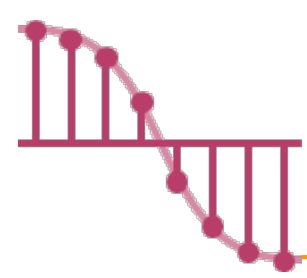
Program 5.15

Recursive search of a binary search tree

```
➤ element* search(treePointer root, int key)
{
    /* return a pointer to the node that contains key,
    if there is no such node, return NULL. */
    if (!root) return NULL;
    if (k == root->data.key) return &(root->data);
    if (k < root->data.key)
        return search(root->leftChild, k);
    return search(root->rightChild, k);
}
```



➤ The time complexity of the search function is $O(h)$, where h is the height of the binary search tree.

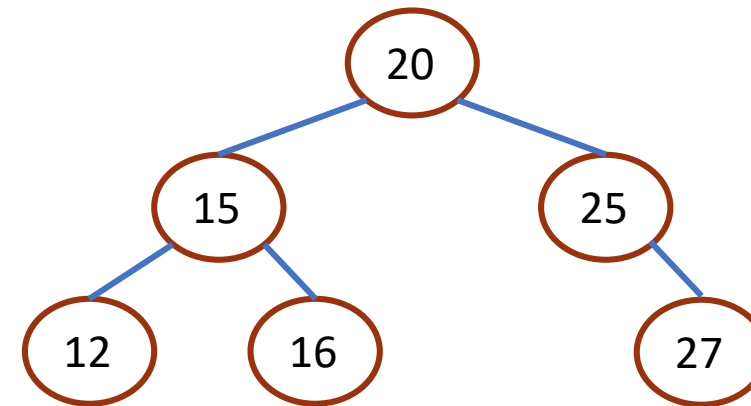


Program 5.16

Iterative search of a binary search tree

```
➤ element* iterSearch(treePointer tree, int k)
{
    /* return a pointer to the node that contains key,
    if there is no such node, return NULL. */

    while (tree) {
        if (k == tree->data.key) return &(tree->data);
        if (k < tree->data.key)
            tree = tree->leftChild;
        else
            tree = tree->rightChild;
    }
    return NULL;
}
```



➤ The time complexity of the search function is $O(h)$, where h is the height of the binary search tree.

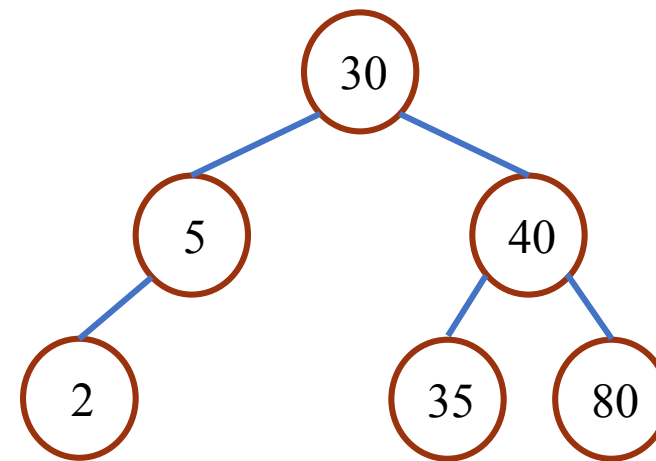
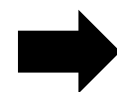
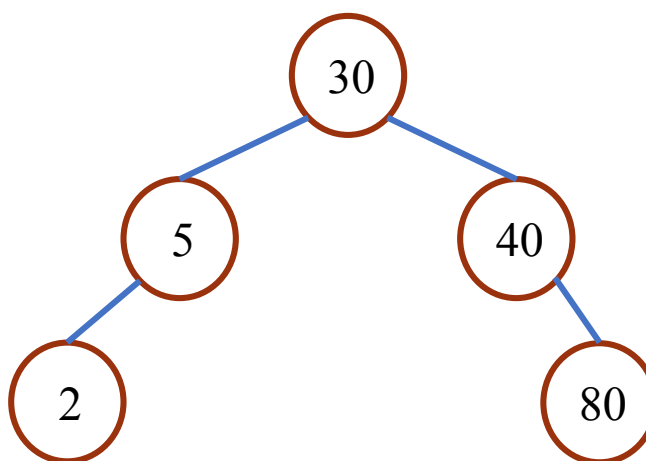
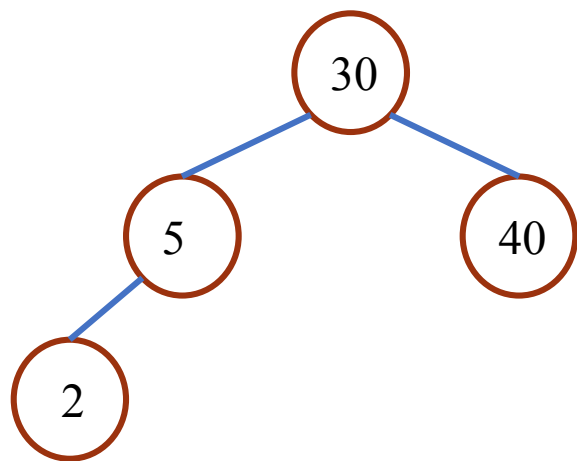


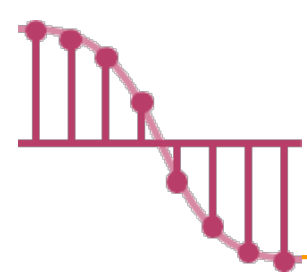
Inserting into a binary search tree

imagine a b.s.t is a number list: $[2, 5, 30, 40]$
 insert 35, 80:

35 80

insert 35, 80:





Program 5.17

Inserting a dictionary pair into a binary search tree

➤ void insert(treePointer *node, int k, itemType theItem)

{

/* If k is in the tree pointed at by node do nothing;
otherwise add a new node with data = (k, theItem) */

treePointer ptr, **temp = modifiedSearch(*node, k);**

if (temp || !(*node)) { /* k is not in the tree */

 MALLOC(ptr, sizeof(*ptr));

 ptr->data.key = k;

 ptr->data.item = theItem;

 ptr->leftChild = ptr->rightChild = NULL;

 if (*node) /* insert as child of temp */

 if (k < temp->data.key)

 temp->leftChild = ptr;

 else

 temp->rightChild = ptr;

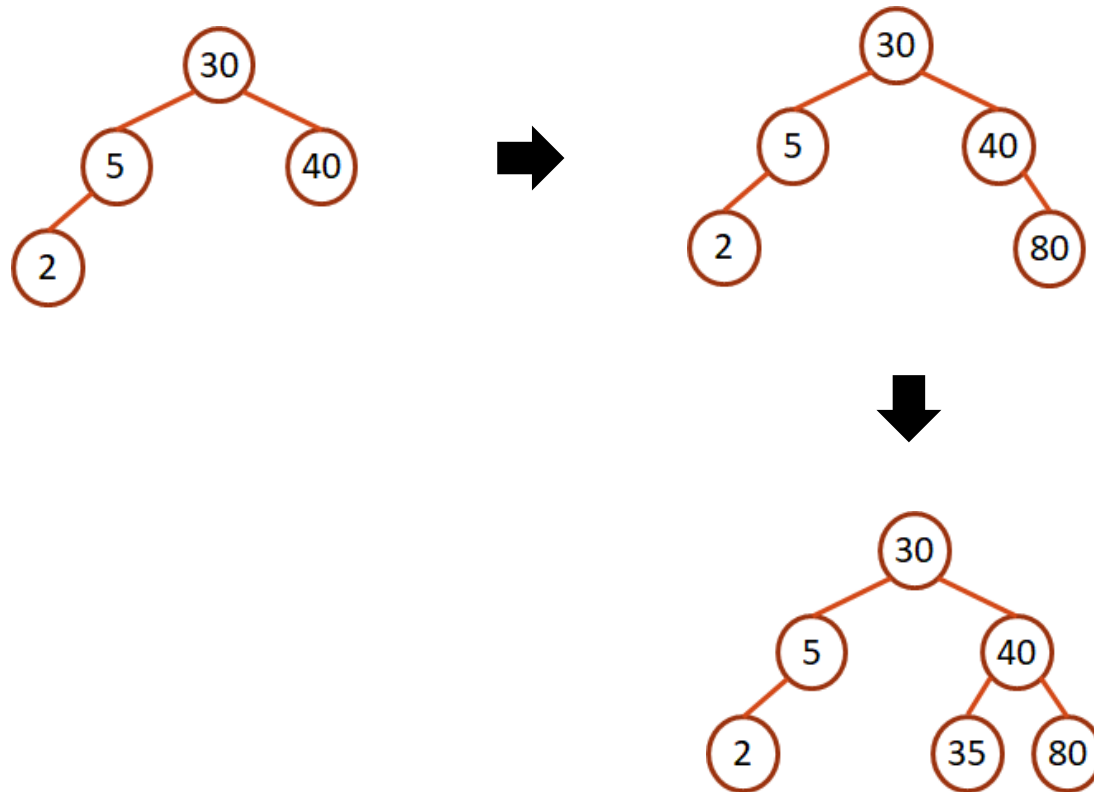
 else

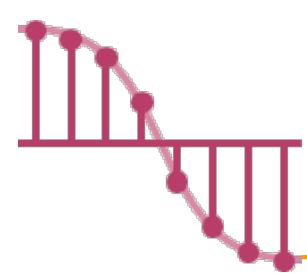
 *node = ptr;

}

}

modifiedSearch: 如果樹是空的或k存在回傳
NULL; 否則回傳碰到的最後一個節點的指標。





Deletion from a Binary Search Tree

➤ Three cases should be considered

✓ **Case 1: leaf** 是葉子 

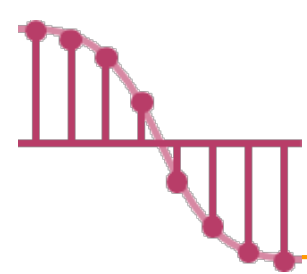
- delete the node and set the pointer from the parent node to null

✓ **Case 2: has only one child** 

- delete the node and change the pointer from the parent node to the single-child node

✓ **Case 3: has two children** 

- replaced by the largest element in its left subtree, or
- replaced by the smallest element in its right subtree

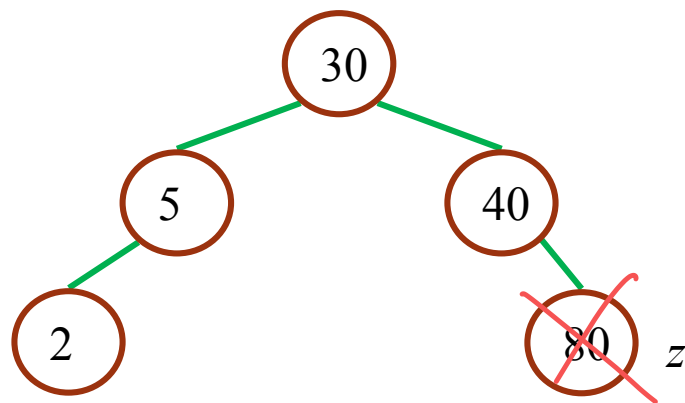


Three cases should be considered _{1/3}

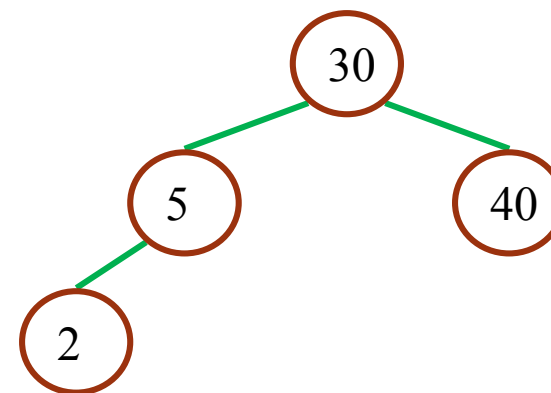
➤ Case 1: leaf

✓ delete the node and set the pointer from the parent node to null

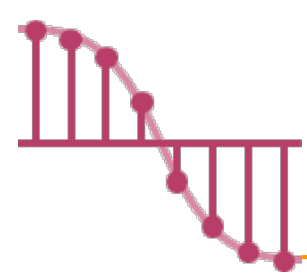
Case 1:



delete 80



葉子，直接刪

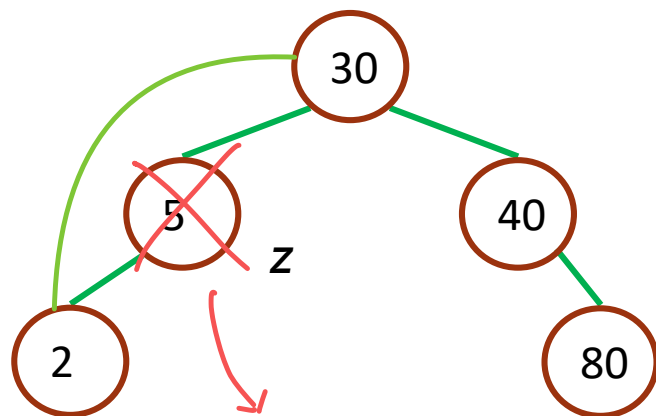


Three cases should be considered _{2/3}

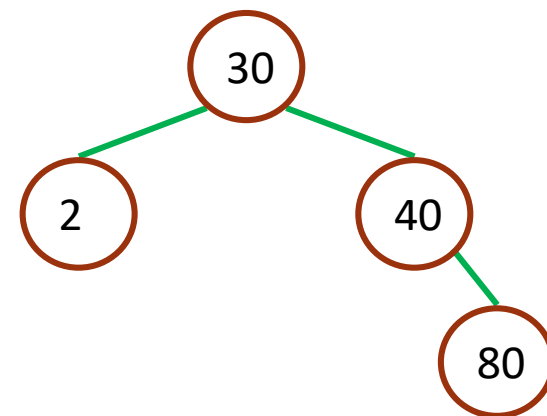
➤ Case 2: has only one child

- ✓ delete the node and change the pointer from the parent node to the single-child node

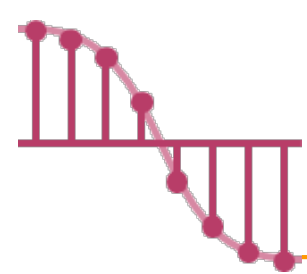
Case 2:



delete 5



只有一个小孩,
小孩直接上位

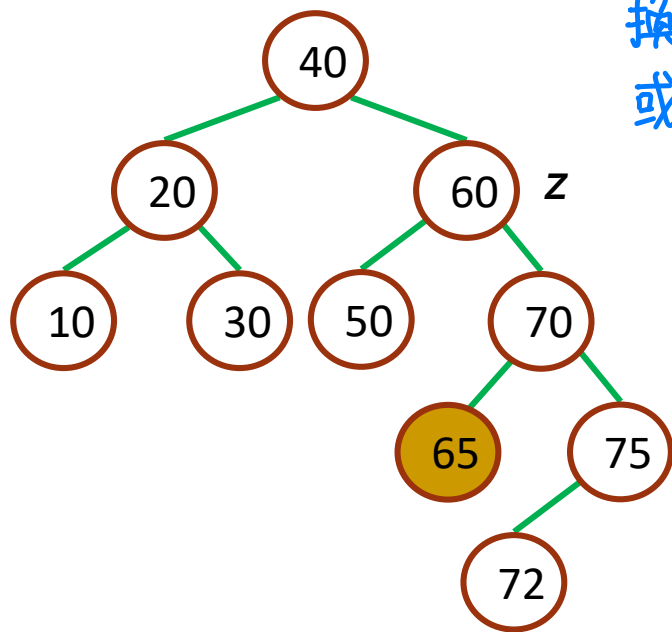


Three cases should be considered _{3/3}

➤ Case 3: has two children 有2个小孩時, 情況分成……

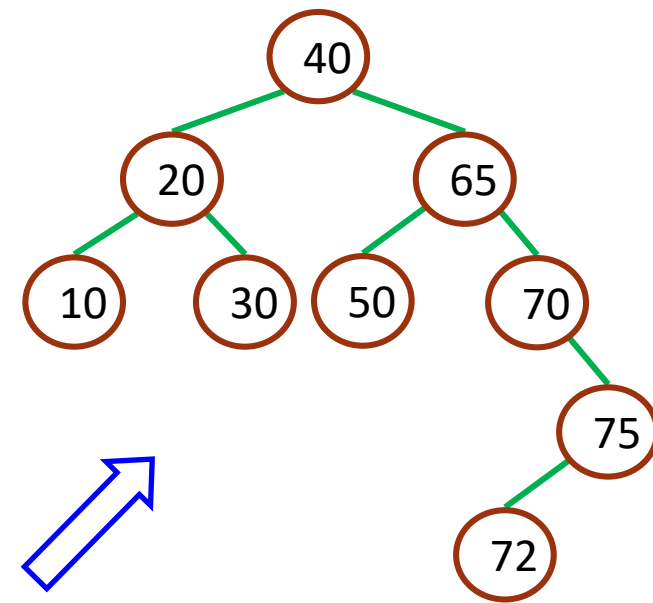
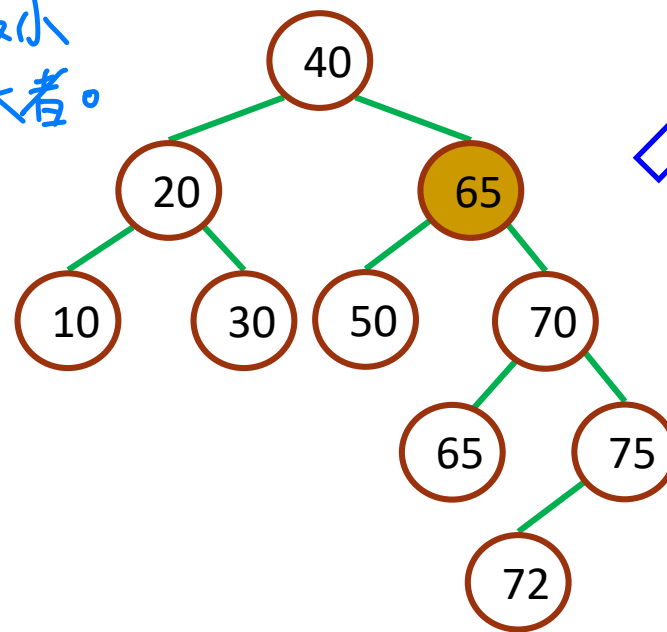
- ✓ replaced by the largest element in its left subtree, or
- ✓ replaced by the smallest element in its right subtree

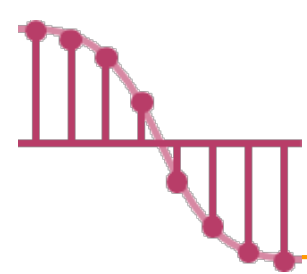
Case 3:



換成左子樹中最小
或右子樹中最大者。

delete 60



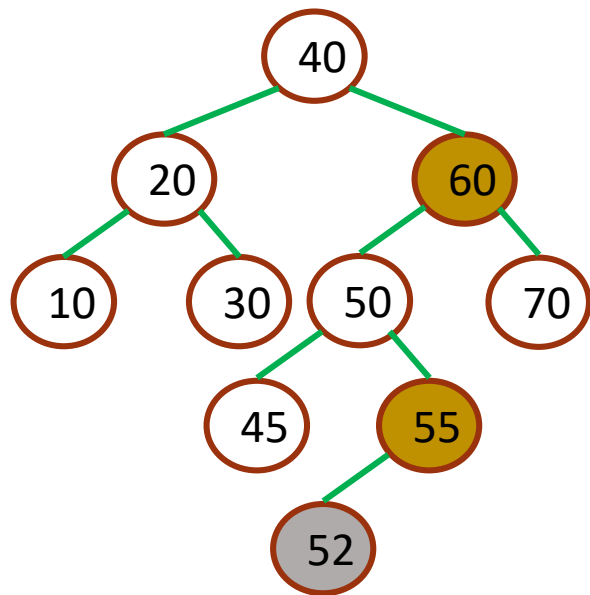


Three cases should be considered ^{3/3}

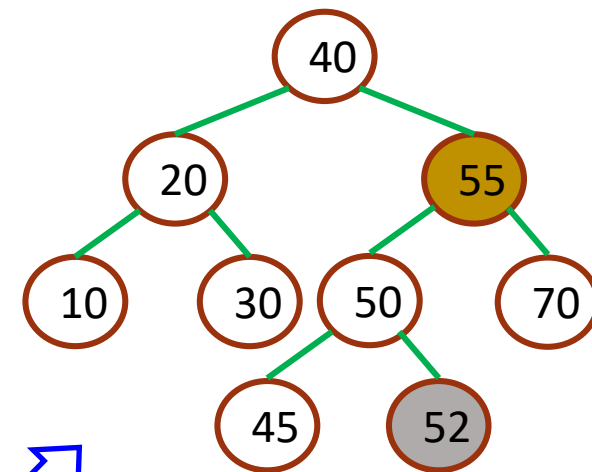
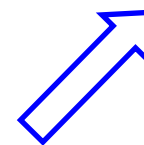
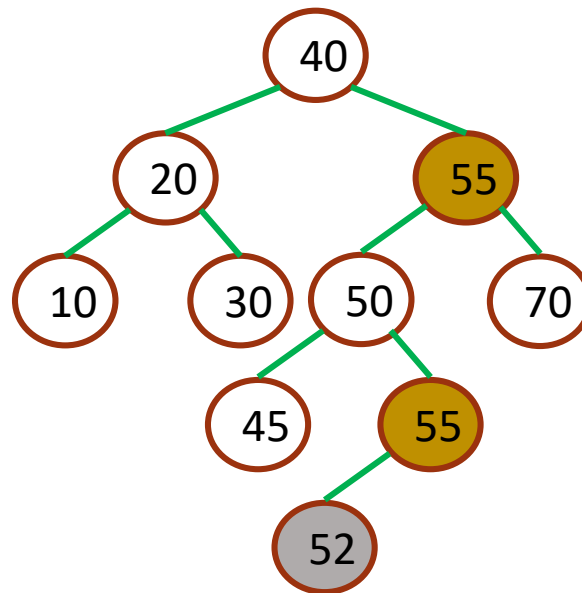
➤ Case 3: has two children

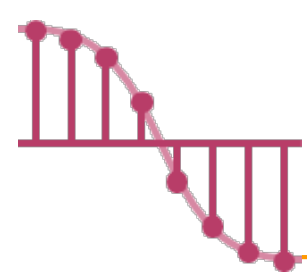
- ✓ replaced by the largest element in its left subtree, or
- ✓ replaced by the smallest element in its right subtree

Case 3:



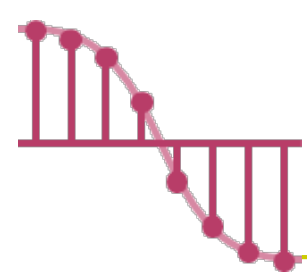
delete 60



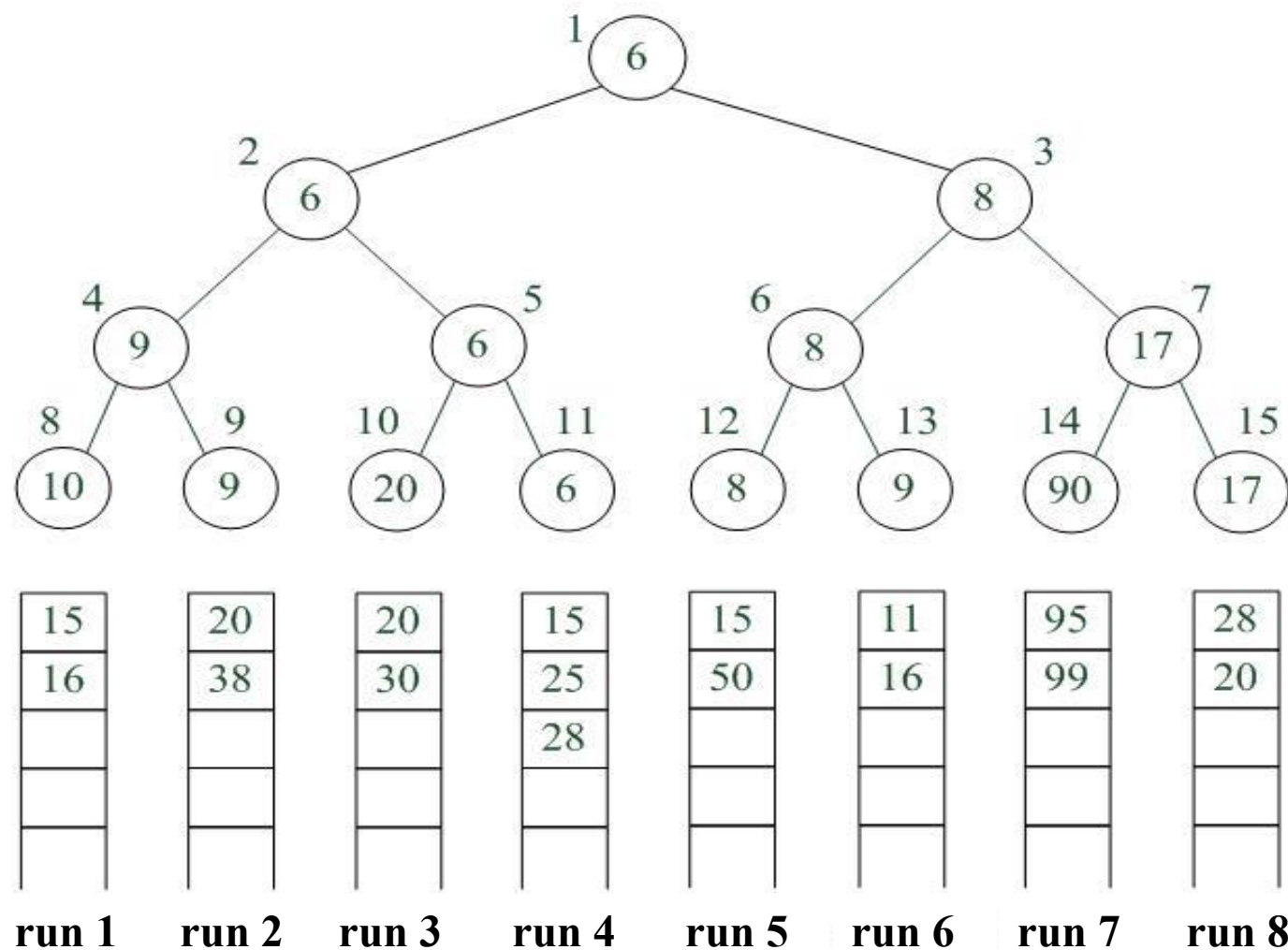


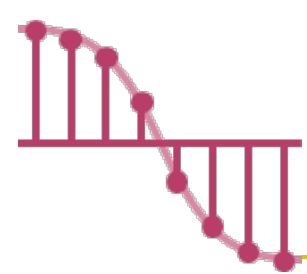
Deleting a nonleaf node that has two children

- One may verify, in both cases, it is originally in a node with a degree of at most one.
- The time complexity for case 3 is $O(h)$, where h is the height of the binary search tree.
- **A deletion can be performed in $O(h)$.**

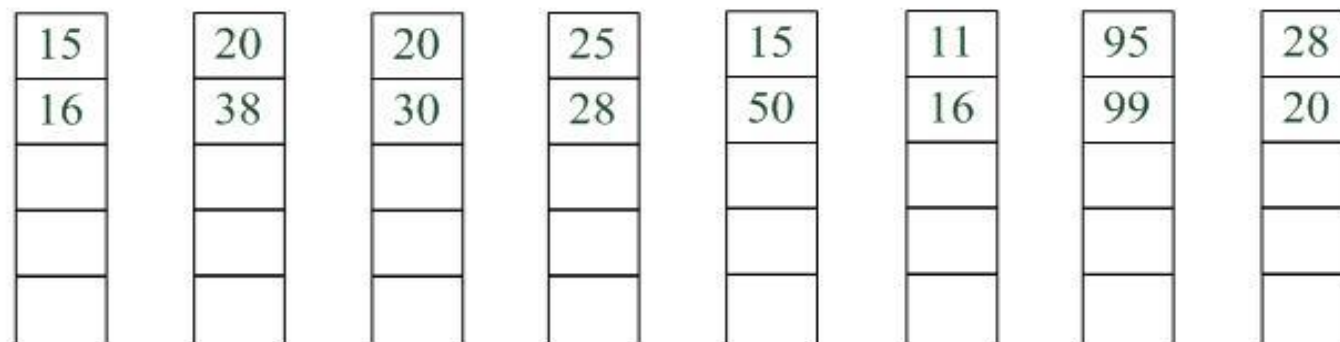
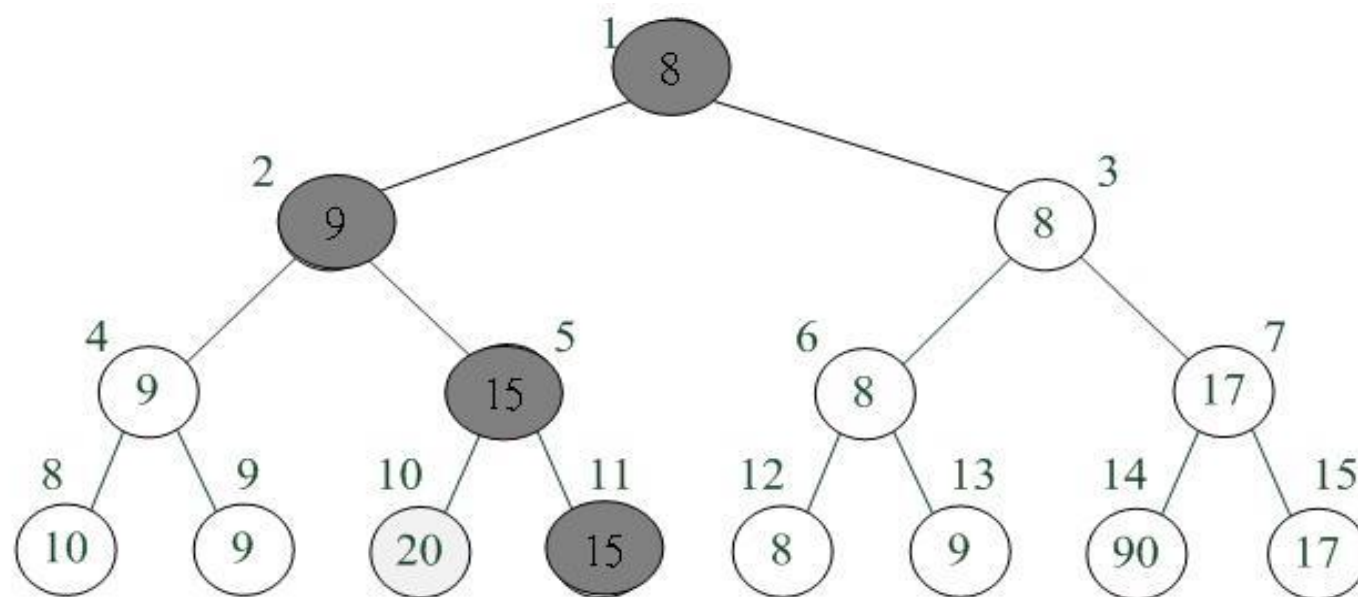


Winner tree for $k = 8$

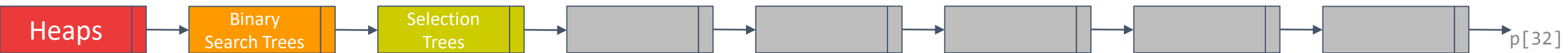


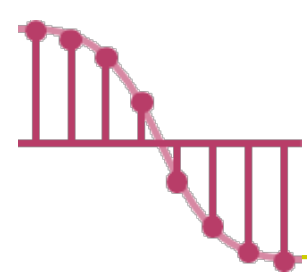


Winner tree for $k = 8$ (next turn)



run 1 run 2 run 3 run 4 run 5 run 6 run 7 run 8

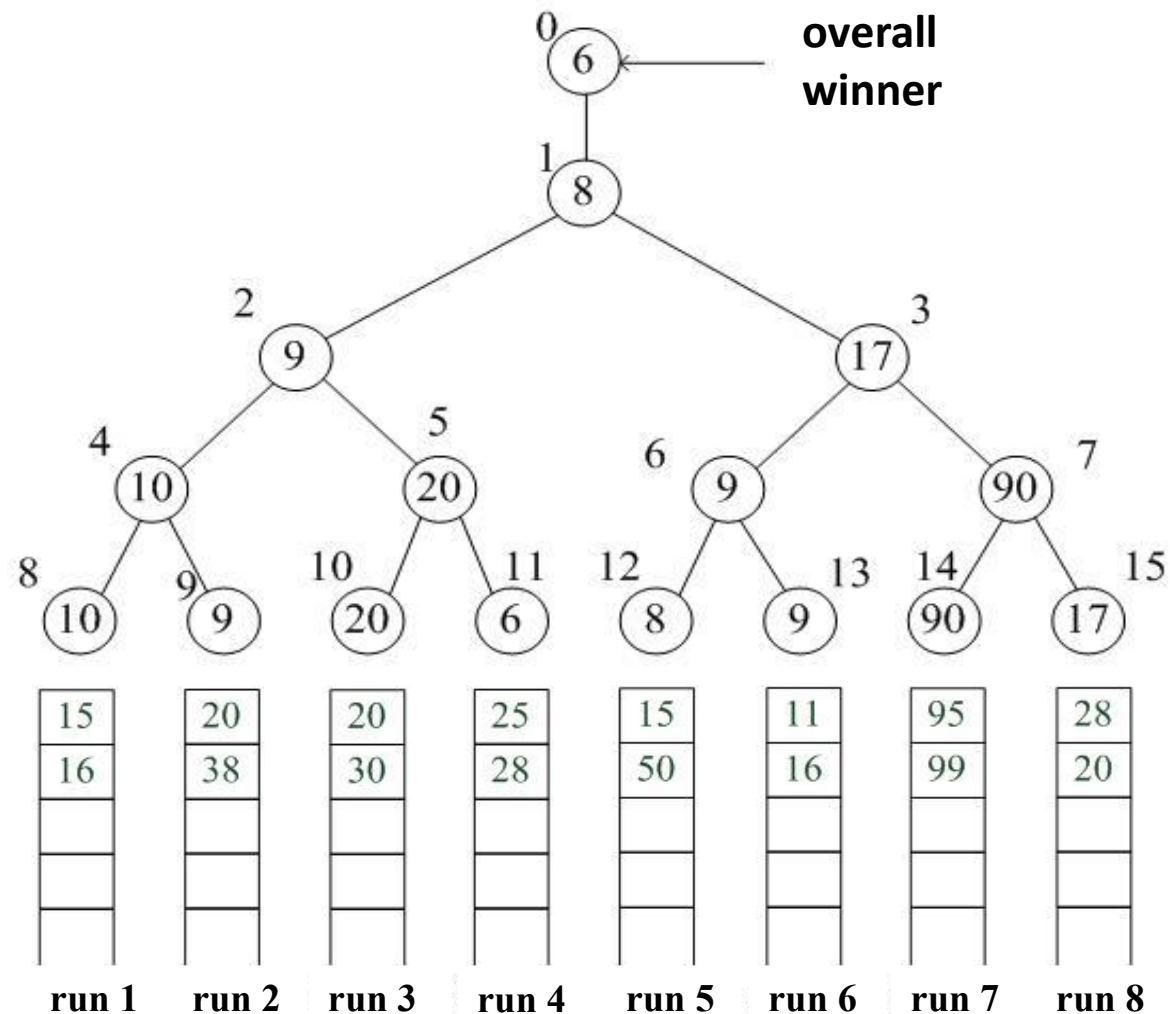


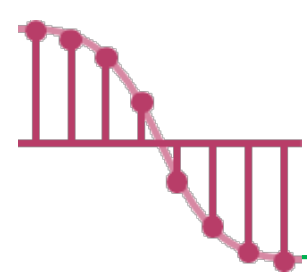


Loser tree for $k = 8$

➤ 敗者樹簡化了重新建構樹的過程

- ✓ 敗者樹的重新建構只與該節點的父節點的記錄有關
- ✓ 而勝者樹的重新建構與該節點的兄弟節點有關





Forests

➤ A **forest** is a set of $n \geq 0$ disjoint trees.

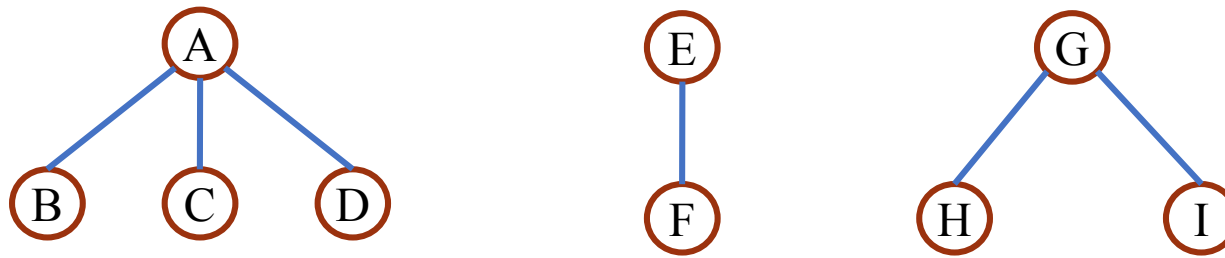
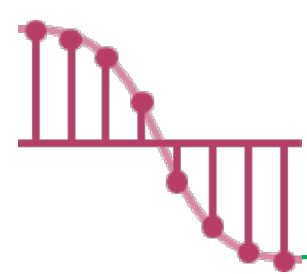
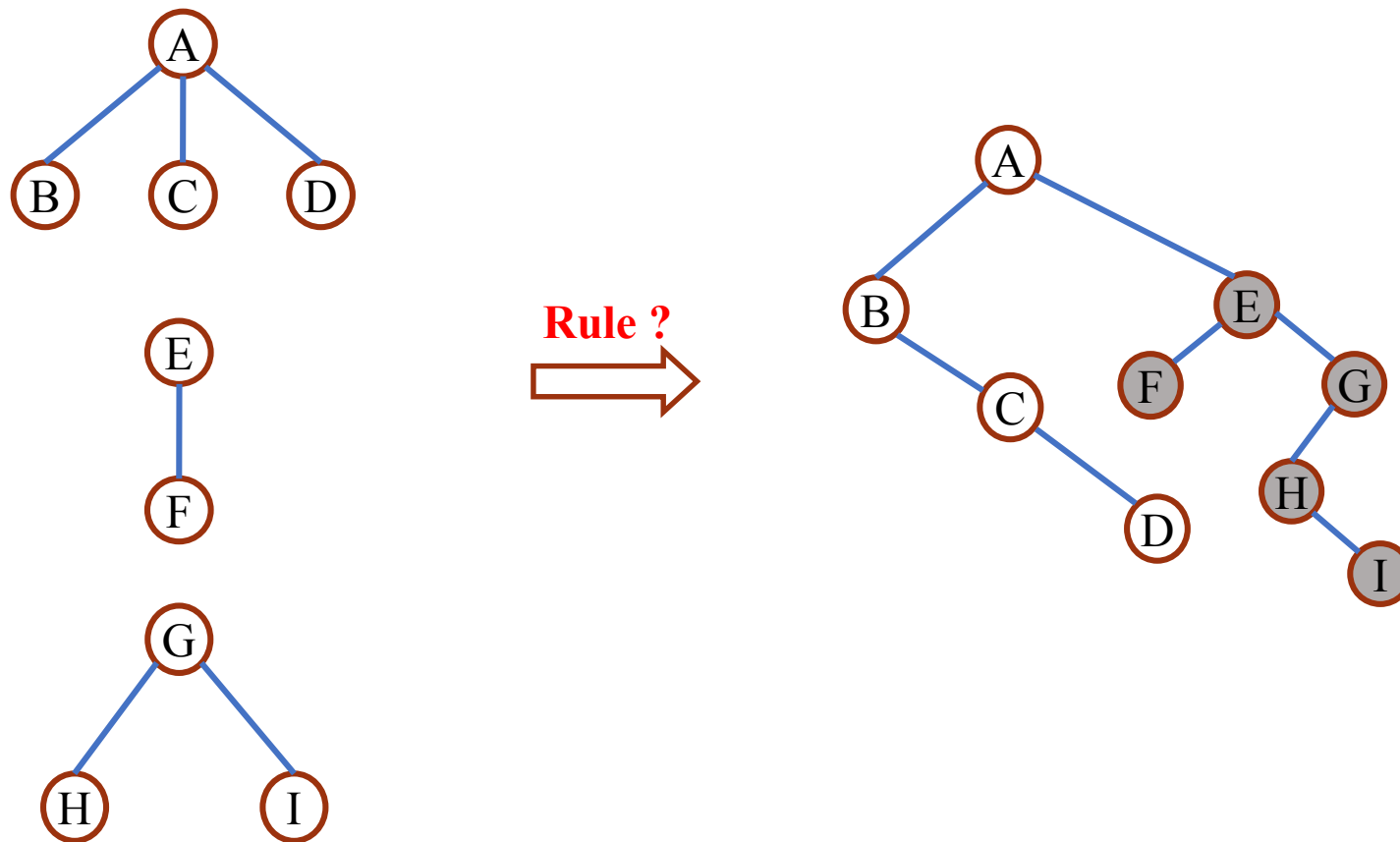


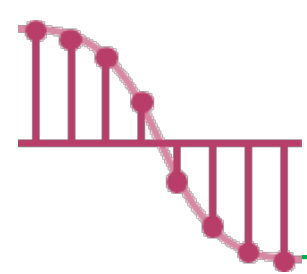
Figure 5.35 : Three-tree forest

注意：forest不用相連



Binary tree representation of forest





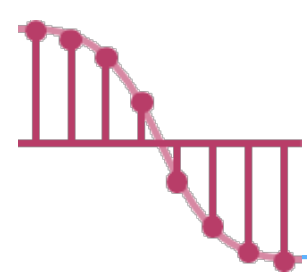
Transforming a Forest into a Binary Tree

- If $T_1, \dots, T_n$ is a forest of trees, then the binary tree corresponding to this forest, denoted by $B(T_1, \dots, T_n)$,
- ✓ is empty if $n = 0$
 - ✓ has root equal to $\text{root}(T_1)$;
 - ✓ has left subtree equal to $B(T_{11}, T_{12}, \dots, T_{1m})$, where $T_{11}, \dots, T_{1m}$ are the subtrees of $\text{root}(T_1)$; and
 - ✓ has right subtree $B(T_2, \dots, T_n)$.

！左孩子，右兄弟！

左 → 接原本樹中「第一个孩子」

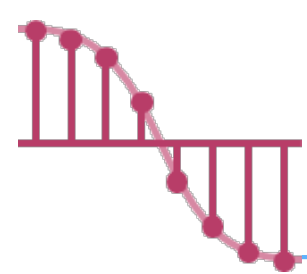
右 → 接原本樹中的下一个兄弟



Introduction

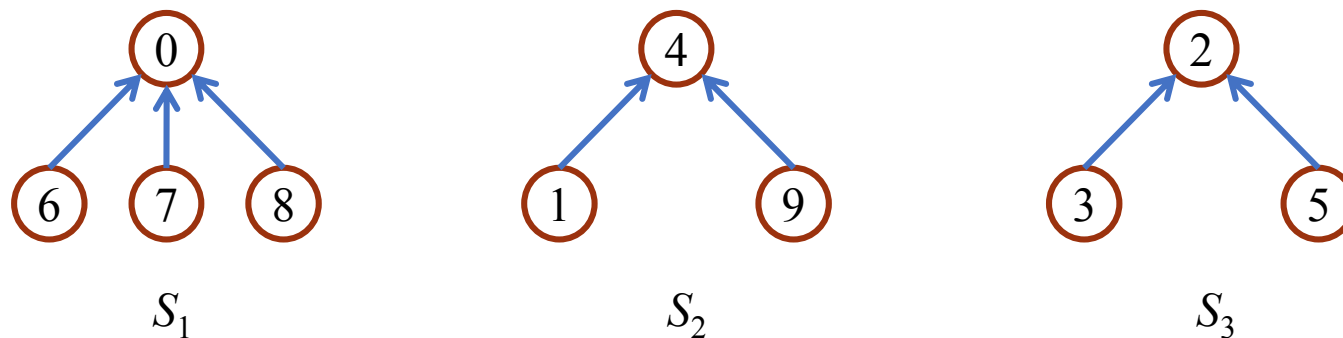
- In this section, we study the use of trees in the representation of **sets**
- For simplicity, we assume that the elements of the sets are the numbers $0, 1, 2, \dots, n-1$
- We also assume that the sets being represented are **pairwise disjoint**
- If S_i and S_j are two **disjoint** sets, then there is no element that is in both S_i and S_j

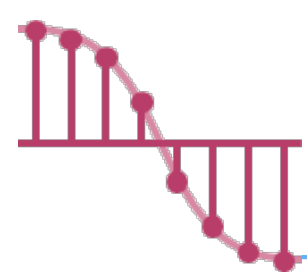




Set Representation ^{1/2}

- If we have 10 elements numbered 0 through 9, we may partition them into three disjoint sets, $S_1 = \{0, 6, 7, 8\}$, $S_2 = \{1, 4, 9\}$, and $S_3 = \{2, 3, 5\}$.
- The following figure shows one possible representation for these sets.
- Notice that for each set we have linked the nodes from the children to the parent





Set Representation _{2/2}

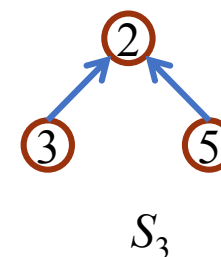
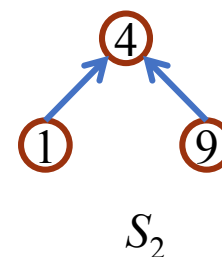
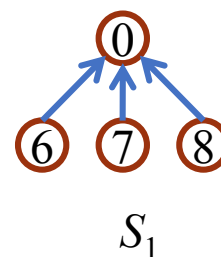
➤ The operations that we wish to perform on these sets are:

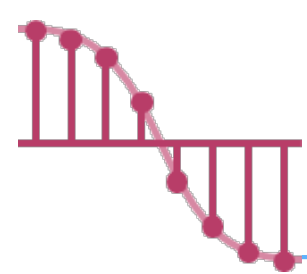
✓ **Disjoint set union.** If S_i and S_j are two disjoint sets, then their union $S_i \cup S_j = \{ \text{all elements, } x, \text{ such that } x \text{ is in } S_i \text{ or } S_j \}$.

- For example, $S_1 \cup S_2 = \{0, 6, 7, 8, 1, 4, 9\}$.

✓ **Find(i).** find the set containing the element i .

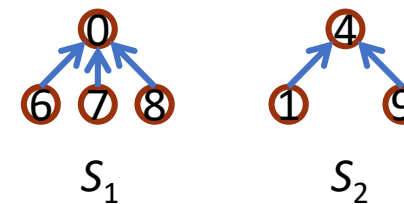
- For example, 3 is in set S_3 and 8 is in set S_1 .



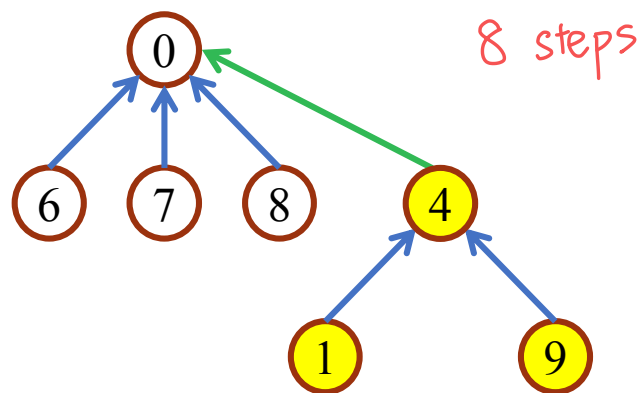


Union Operation

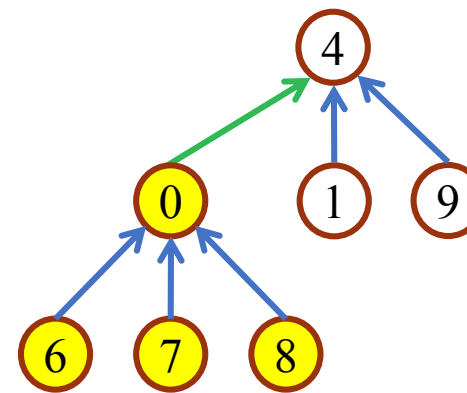
做聯集



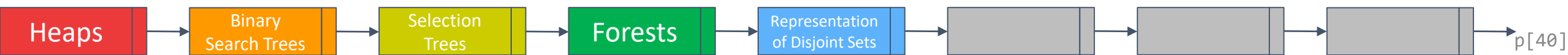
- Suppose that we wish to obtain the union of S_1 and S_2 .
- Since we have linked the nodes from the children to parent, we simply make one of the trees a subtree of the other.

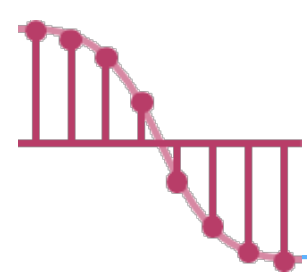


or



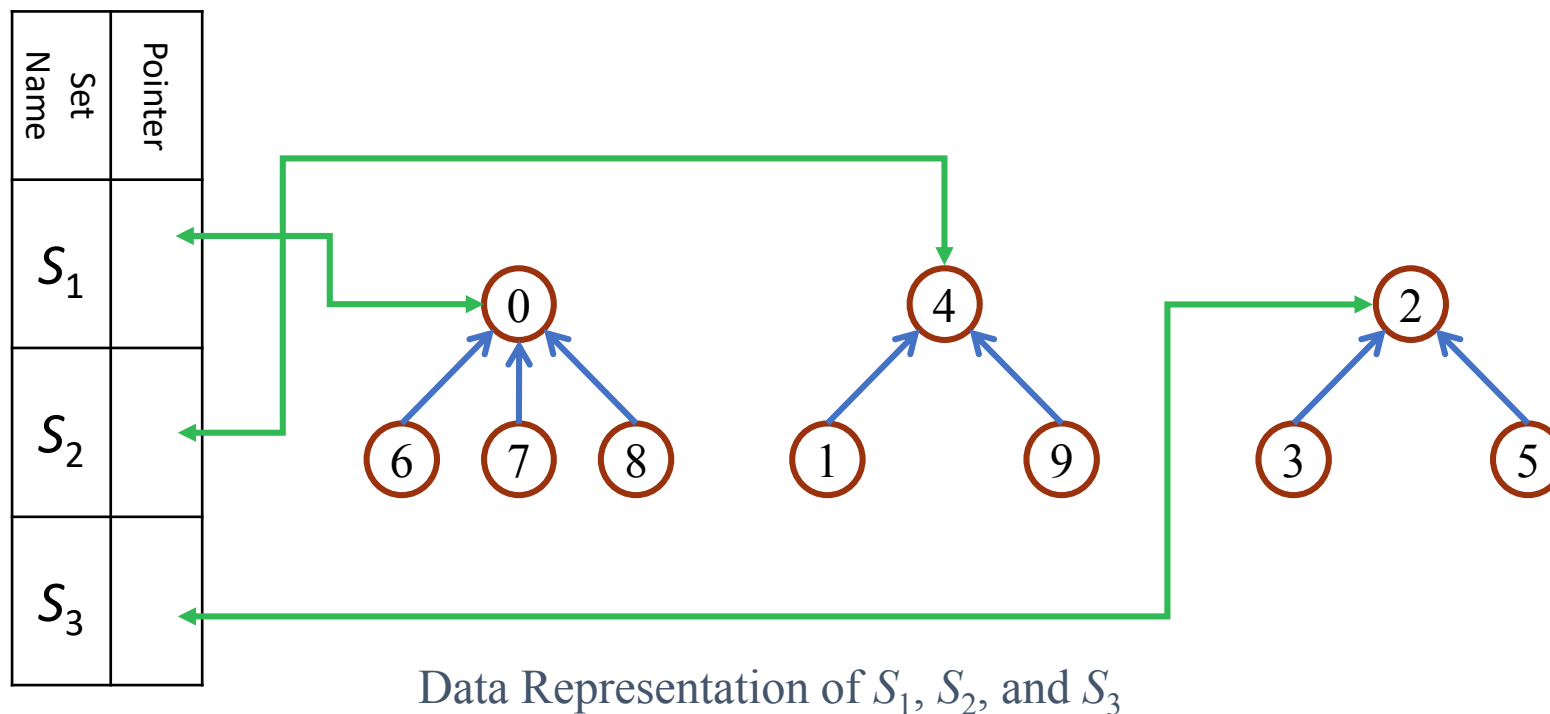
Possible representation of $S_1 \cup S_2$

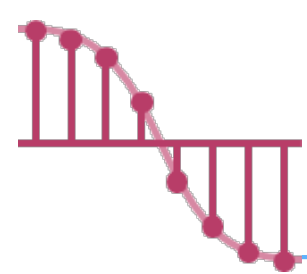




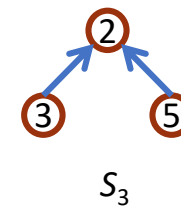
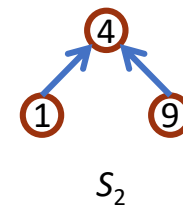
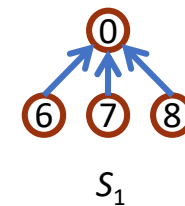
Find Operation

- We can find which set an element is in by following the parent links to the root and then returning the pointer to the set name.



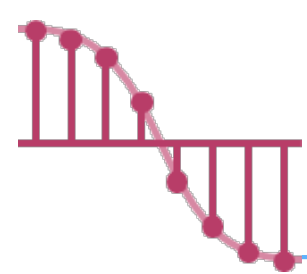


Array Representation of Sets



- We identify the sets by the roots of the trees representing them.
- Since the nodes in the trees are numbered 0 through $n-1$, we can use the node's number as an index.
- This means that each node needs only one field, **the index of its parent**, to link to its parent.
- The following figure shows the array representation of the sets S_1 , S_2 , and S_3 . Notice that root nodes have a parent of -1.

	S_1	S_2	S_3	S_3	S_2	S_3	S_1	S_1	S_1	S_2
i	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
$parent$	-1	4	-1	2	-1	2	0	0	0	4

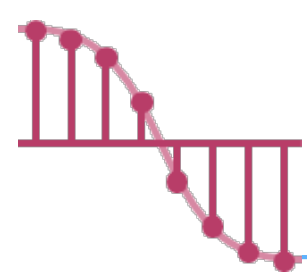


Union and Find Operations

- We can now **find element i** by simply following the parent values starting at i and continuing until we reach a negative parent value.
- For example, to find 5, we start at 5, and then move to 5's parent, 2. Since node 2 has a negative parent value we have reached the root.

i	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
$parent$	-1	4	-1	2	-1	2	0	0	0	4

- To **union** the two trees with roots i and j , we simply set $parent[i] = j$.



Program 5.19

Initial attempt at union-find functions

➤ int simpleFind (int i)

{

for (; parent[i] ≥ 0; i = parent[i])

;

return i;

}

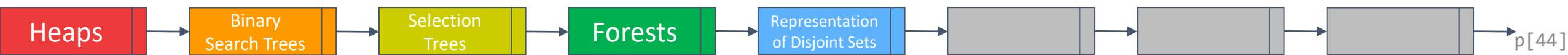
<i>i</i>	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
<i>parent</i>	-1	4	-1	2	-1	2	0	0	0	4

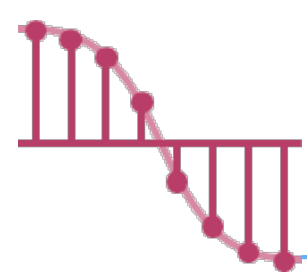
➤ void simpleUnion (int i, int j)

{

parent [i] = j;

}





Analysis of Program 5.19

➤ Consider the case:

✓ we start with p elements, each in a set of its own, that is $S_i = \{i\}$.

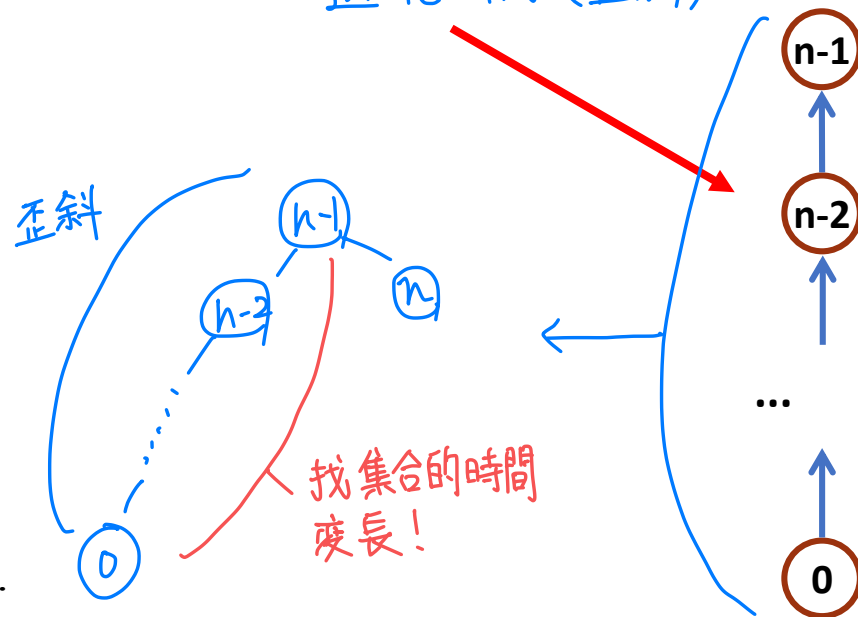
➤ The following sequence of union-find operations produces the **degenerate tree**.

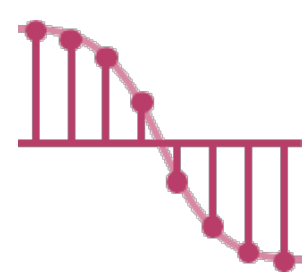
退化樹 (歪斜)

union(0,1), find(0)
union(1,2), find(0)
...
union($n-2, n-1$), find(0)

➤ The time complexity of **union operation** is $O(n)$.

The time complexity of **find operation** is $\sum_{i=2}^n i = O(n^2)$.





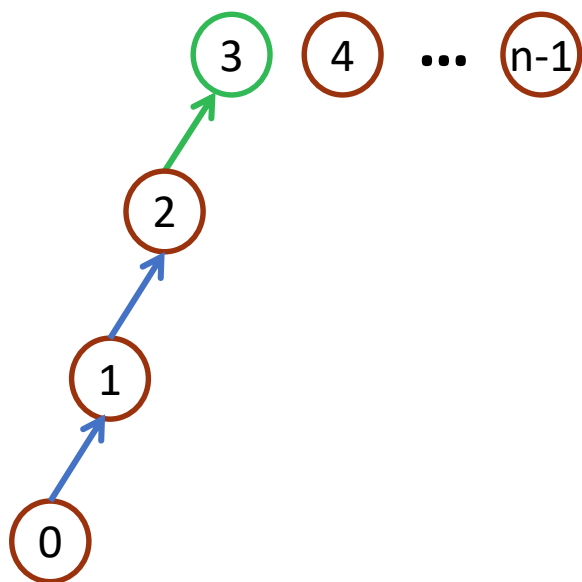
initial



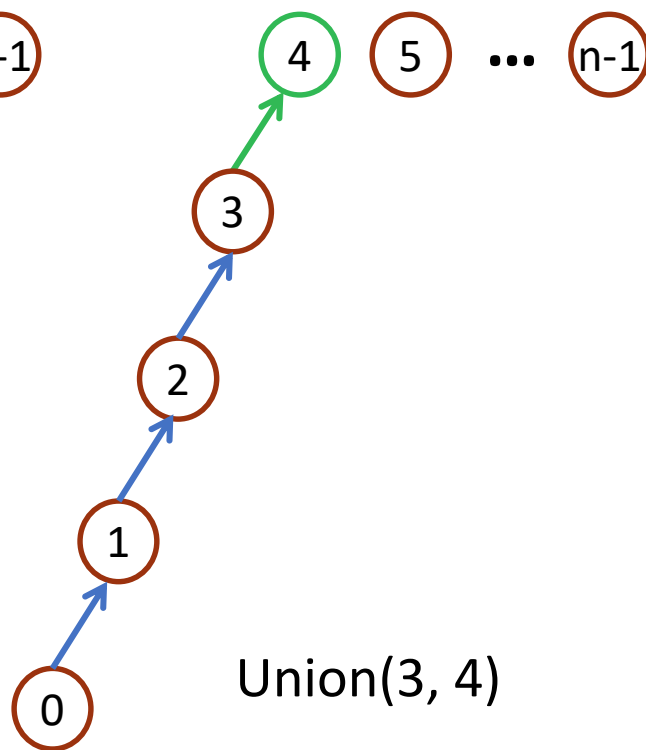
Union(0, 1)



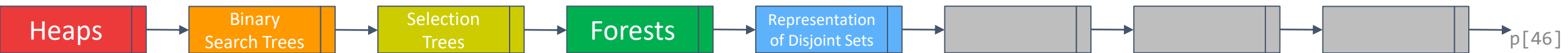
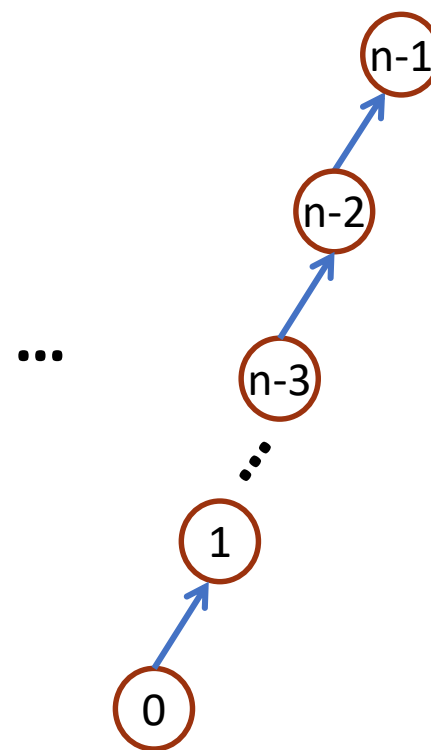
Union(1, 2)

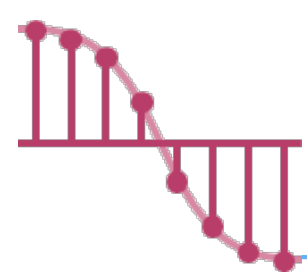


Union(2, 3)

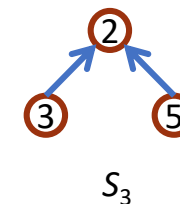
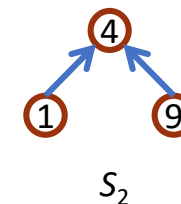
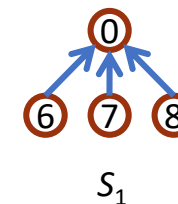


Union(3, 4)



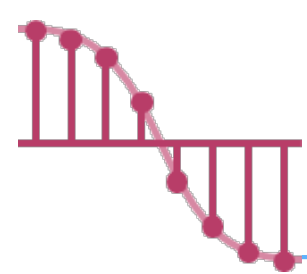


Weighting Rule for Union

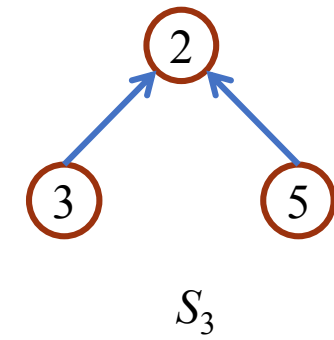
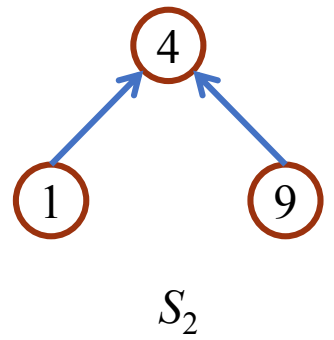
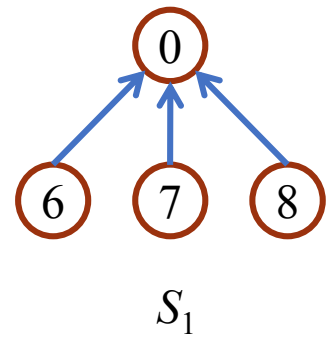


- To avoid the creation of degenerate trees, we adopt the weighting rule for $\text{union}(i, j)$.
- **Weighting rule for $\text{union}(i, j)$.** If the number of nodes in tree i is less than the number in tree j then make j the parent of i ; otherwise make i the parent of j .
- To implement the weighting rule, we set $\text{parent}[i]$ equals the negative number of nodes in that tree, if i is a root node.

i	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
parent	-4	4	-3	2	-3	2	0	0	0	4



Example



Root nodes have a parent of -1

i	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
parent	-1	4	-1	2	-1	2	0	0	0	4

Parent[i] equals the negative number of nodes in that tree, if i is a root node.

i	[0]	[1]	[2]	[3]	[4]	[5]	[6]	[7]	[8]	[9]
parent	-4	4	-3	2	-3	2	0	0	0	4

改成記錄集合的元素

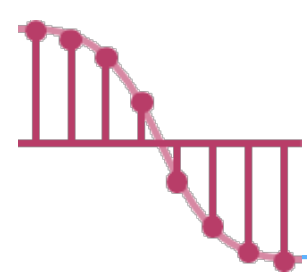
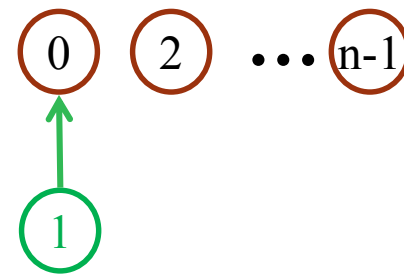


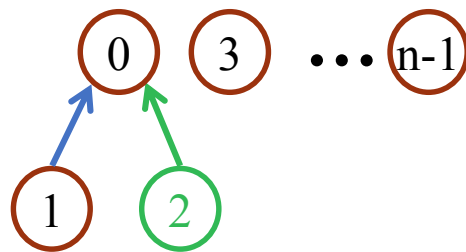
Figure 5.42 Trees obtained using the weighted rule



initial

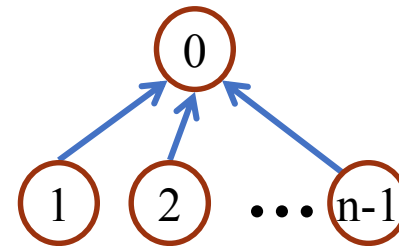


Union(0, 1)

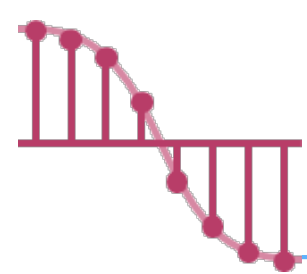


Union(0, 2)

...



Union(0, n-1)

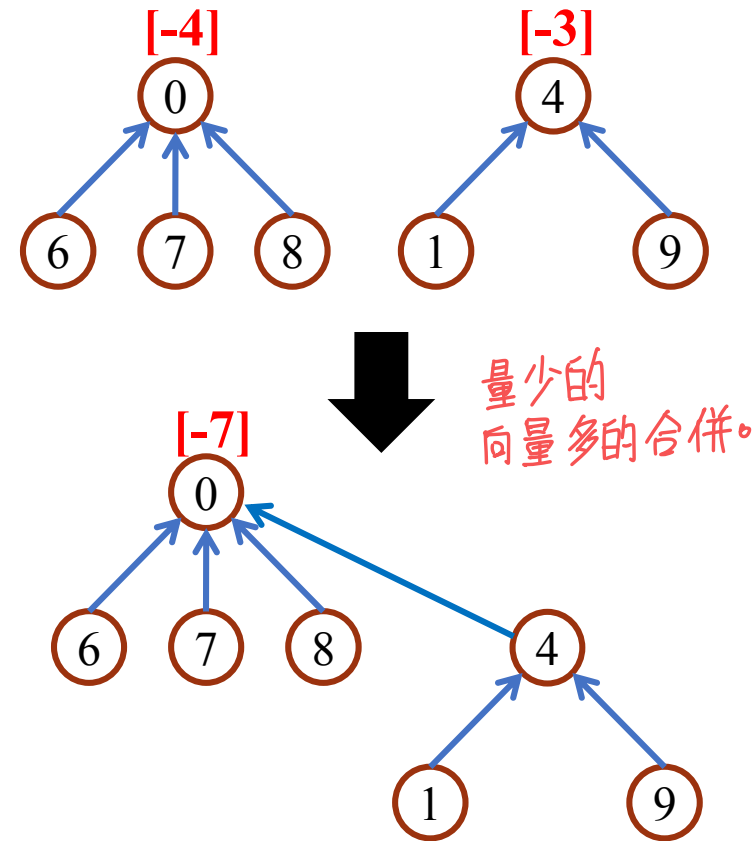


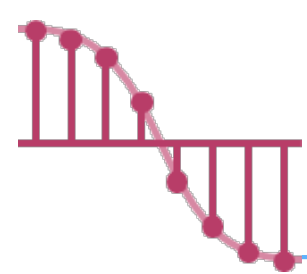
Program 5.20.

Union function using weighting rule

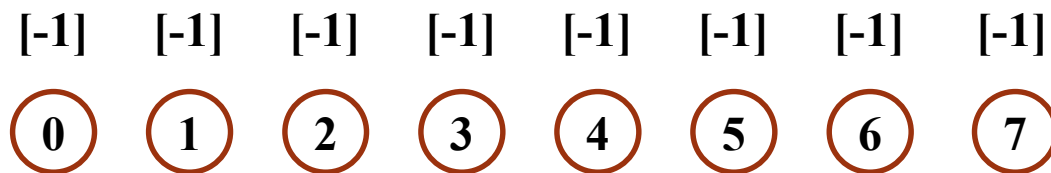
➤ void weightedUnion(int i, int j)

```
{  
    /* union the sets with roots i and j, i != j, using the  
    weighting rule. parent [i] = -count [i] and  
    parent [j] = -count[j] */  
    int temp = parent[i] + parent[j];  
    if (parent[i] > parent[j]) {  
        parent[i] = j; /*make j the new root */  
        parent[j] = temp;  
    }  
    else {  
        parent[j] = i; /*make i the new root */  
        parent[i] = temp;  
    }  
}
```

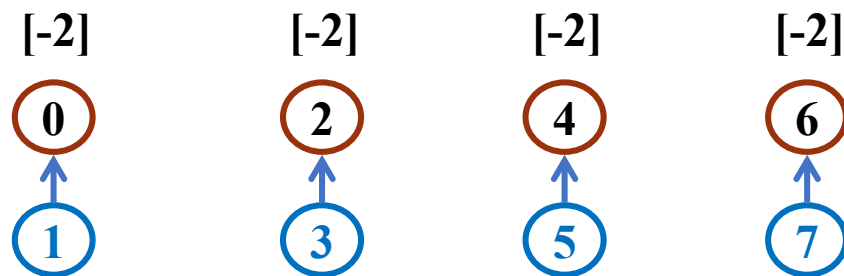




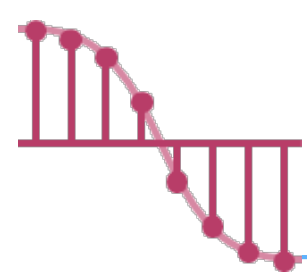
Trees achieving worst case bound $1/2$



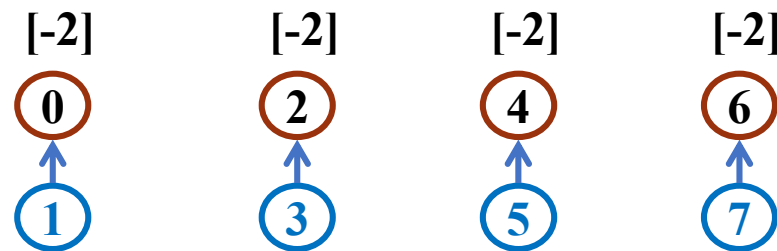
(a) Initial height-1 trees



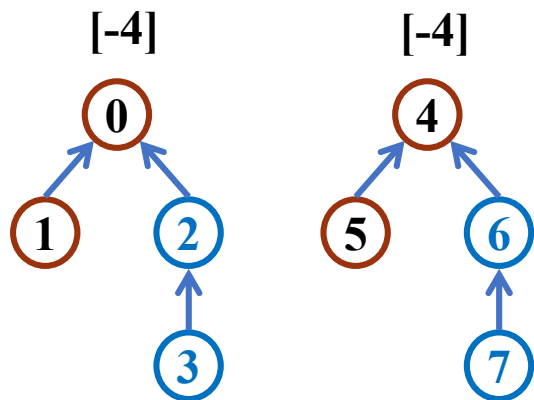
(b) Height-2 trees following Union(0, 1), (2, 3), (4, 5) and (6, 7)



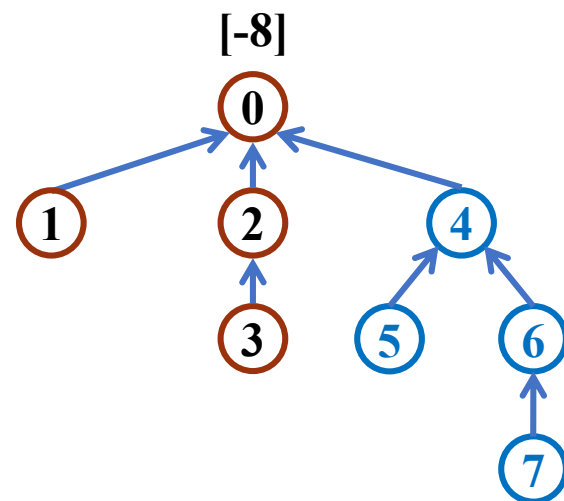
Trees achieving worst case bound $2/2$



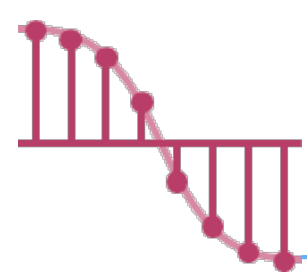
(b) Height-2 trees following Union(0, 1), (2, 3), (4, 5) and (6, 7)



(c) Height-3 trees following Union(0, 2) and (4, 6)



(d) Height-4 tree following Union(0, 4)



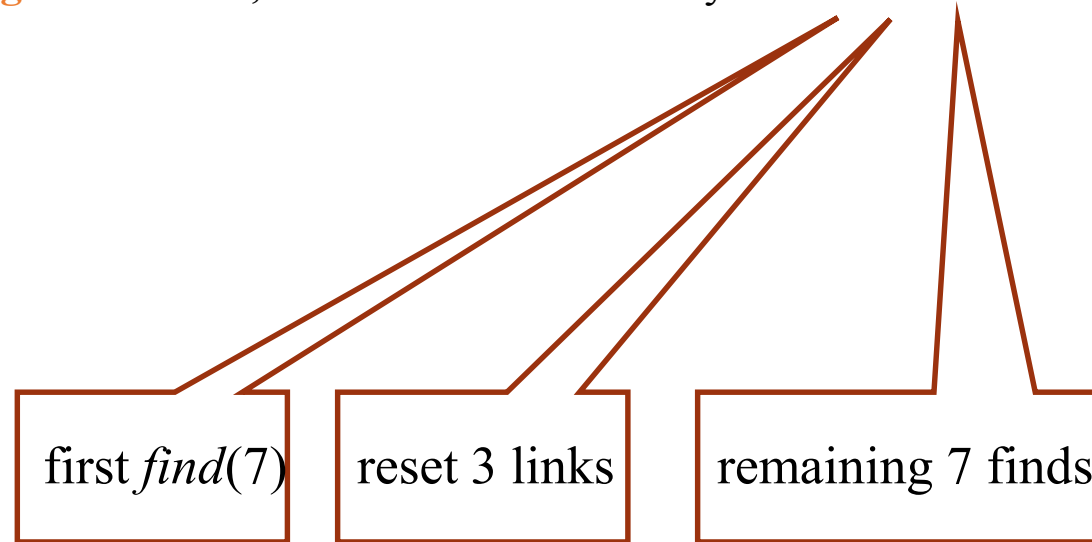
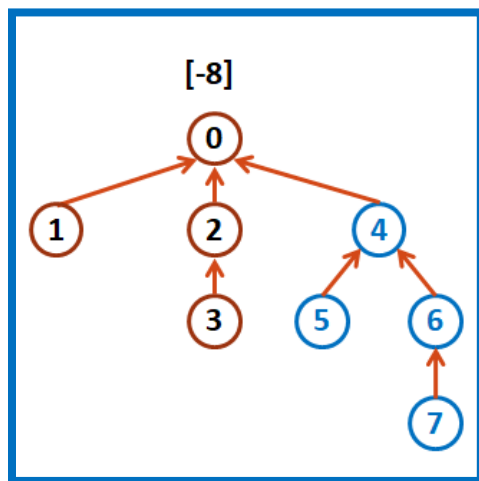
Collapsing Rule _{1/2}

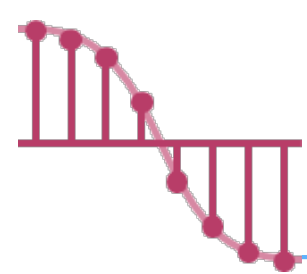
➤ **Collapsing rule (瓦解規則):** If j is a node on the path from i to its root and $\text{parent}[i] \neq \text{root}(i)$, then set $\text{parent}[j]$ to $\text{root}(i)$.

➤ Consider the previous example.

✓ Now process the following eight finds: $\text{find}(7)$, $\text{find}(7)$, ..., $\text{find}(7)$.

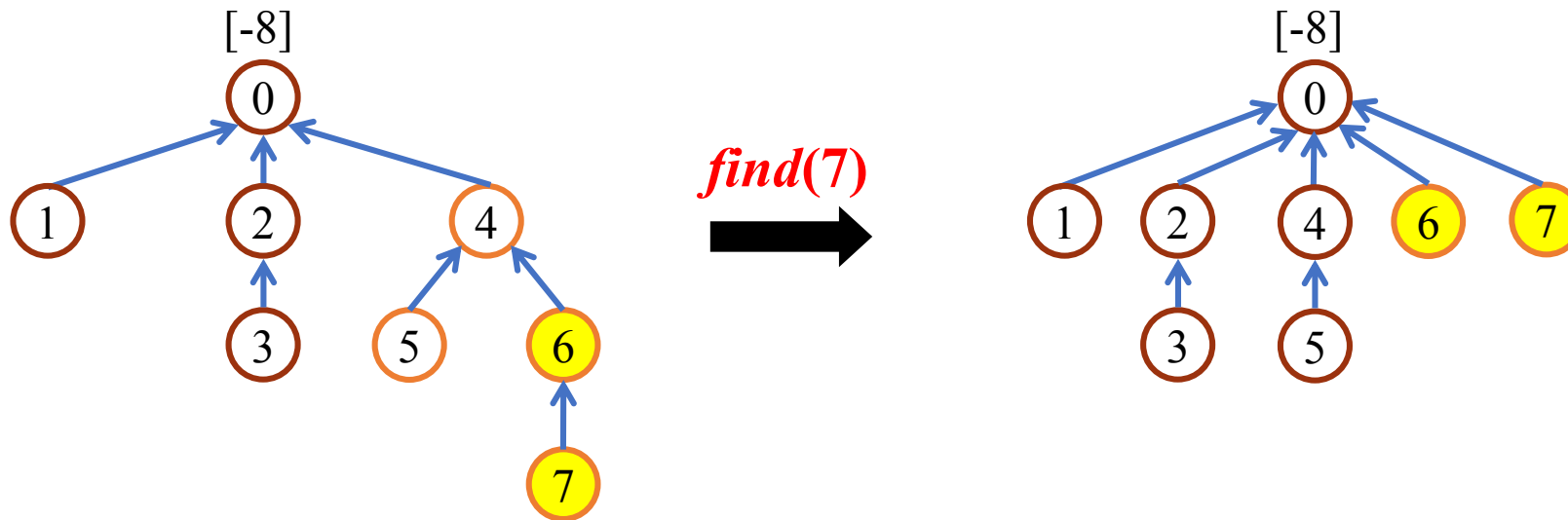
The **simpleFind** needs $3 \times 8 = 24$ moves. When **collapsingFind** is used, the total cost is now only needs $3 + 3 + 7 = 13$ moves.

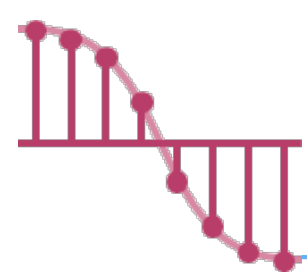




Collapsing Rule _{2/2}

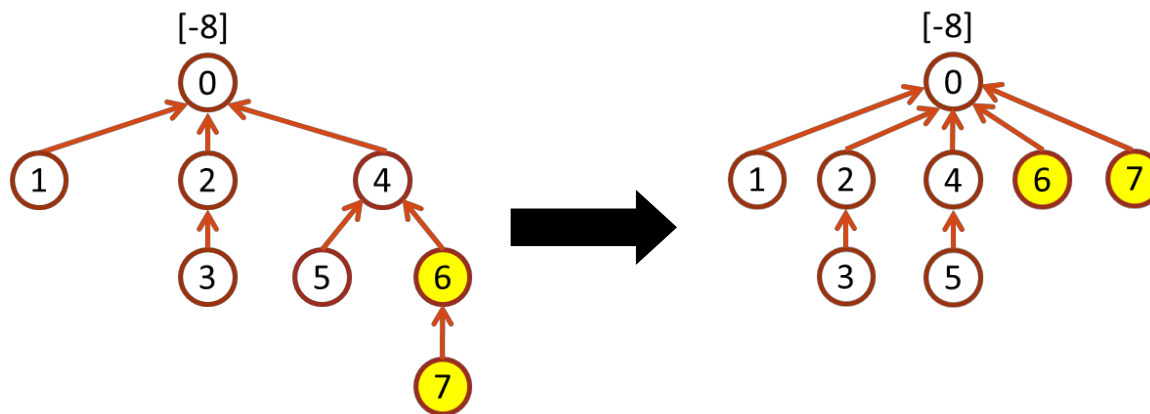
- When collapsingFind is used, the first $find(7)$ requires going up three links and then resetting two links.
- Note that even though only two parent links need to be reset, function collapsingFind will actually reset three (the parent of 4 is reset to 0).





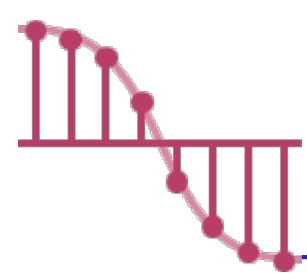
Program 5.21 Collapsing rule

```
➤ int collapsingFind (int i)
{
    /* find the root of the tree containing element i.
       Use the collapsing rule to collapse all nodes
       from i to root */
    int root, trail, lead;
    for (root = i; parent[root] >= 0; root = parent[root])
        ;
    for (trail = i; trail != root; trail = lead) {
        lead = parent[trail];
        parent[trail] = root;
    }
    return root;
}
```



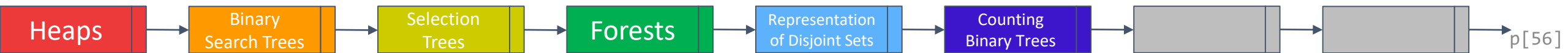
```
i = 7
for (root = i; parent[root] >= 0;
    root = parent[root])
    ;
root = 0

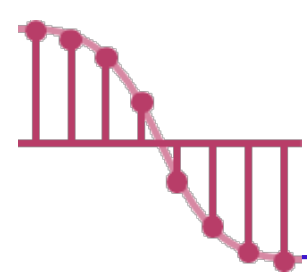
trail = 7
lead = parent[7] = 6
parent[trail] = parent[7] = 0
trail = 6
lead = parent[6] = 4
parent[6] = 0
trail = 4
lead = parent[4] = 0
parent[4] = 0
trail = 0
```



Counting Binary Tree

- We consider the following three disparate problems:
 - ✓ The number of distinct binary trees having n nodes
 - ✓ The number of distinct permutations of the numbers from 1 through n obtainable by a stack
 - ✓ The number of distinct ways of multiplying $n+1$ matrices
- They amazingly have the same solution.



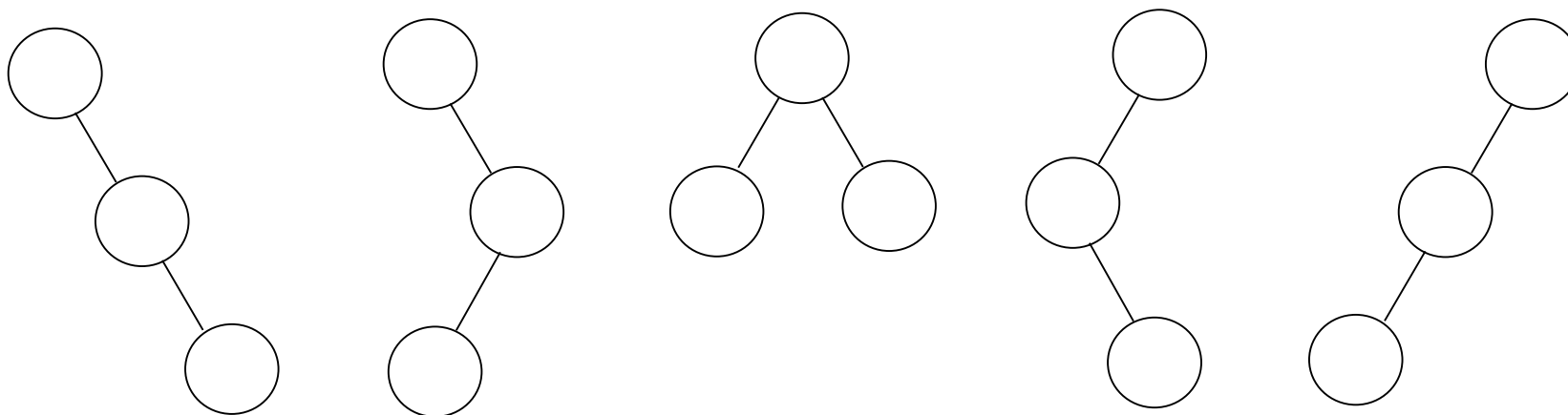


Counting Binary Tree

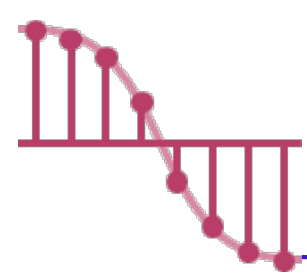
➤ We consider the following three disparate problems:

✓ The number of distinct binary trees having n nodes

Example. If $n=3$,



There are 5 distinct binary tree



Counting Binary Tree

➤ We consider the following three disparate problems:

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- ✓ The number of distinct permutations of the numbers from 1 through n obtainable by a stack

Example. If $n=3$,

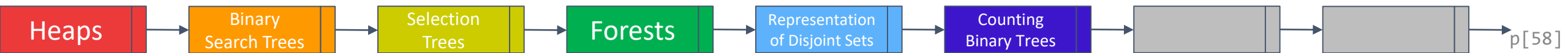
push 1 → pop → push 2 → pop → push 3 → pop **123**

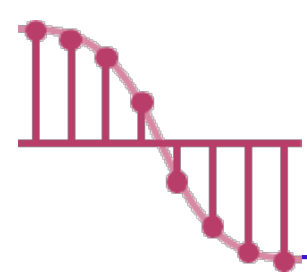
push 1 → pop → push 2 → push 3 → pop → pop **132**

push 1 → push 2 → push 3 → pop → pop → pop **321**

push 1 → push 2 → pop → pop → push 3 → pop **213**

push 1 → push 2 → pop → push 3 → pop → pop **231**





Counting Binary Tree

➤ We consider the following three disparate problems:

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✓ The number of distinct ways of multiplying $n+1$ matrices

Example. If $n=3$,

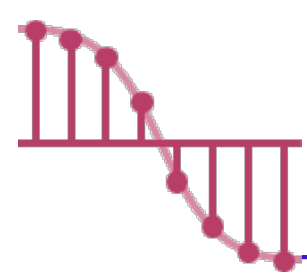
$$((M_1 * M_2) * M_3) * M_4$$

$$(M_1 * (M_2 * M_3)) * M_4$$

$$M_1 * ((M_2 * M_3) * M_4)$$

$$M_1 * (M_2 * (M_3 * M_4))$$

$$(M_1 * M_2) * (M_3 * M_4)$$

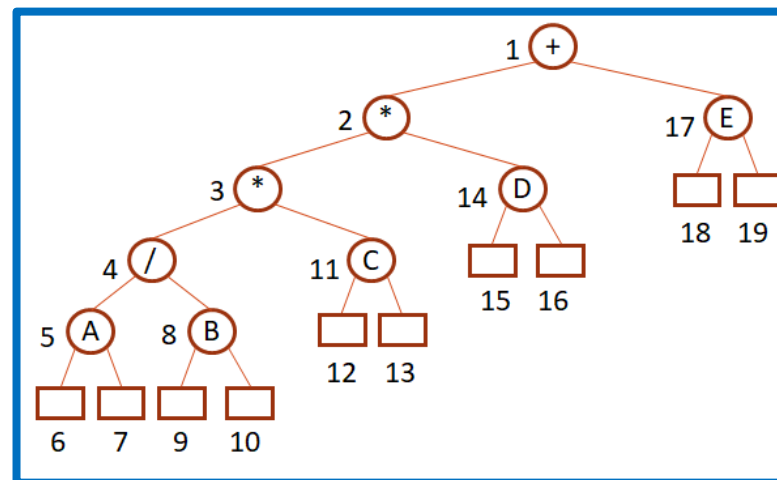


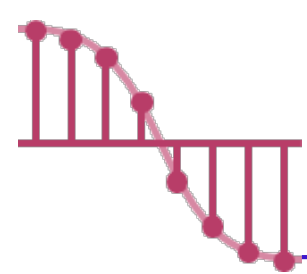
Stack permutation ^{1/4}

会考

- In section 5.3 we introduced **preorder**, **inorder**, and **postorder** traversal of a binary tree and indicated that each traversal requires a stack.
- **Every binary tree has a unique pair of preorder/inorder sequences.**
- The number of **distinct binary trees** is **equal to** the number of **inorder permutations** obtainable from binary trees having the **preorder permutation**, $1, 2, \dots, n$.

Inorder traversal: $A/B * C * D + E$ (**LVR**)
Preorder traversal: $+ ** / ABCDE$ (**VLR**)
Postorder traversal: $AB / C * D * E +$ (**LRV**)

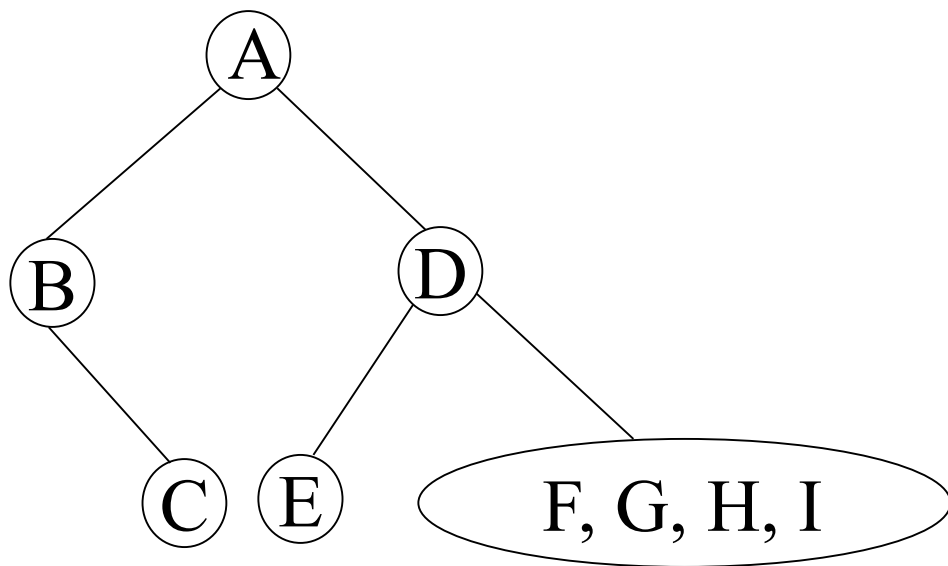




Stack permutation _{2/4}

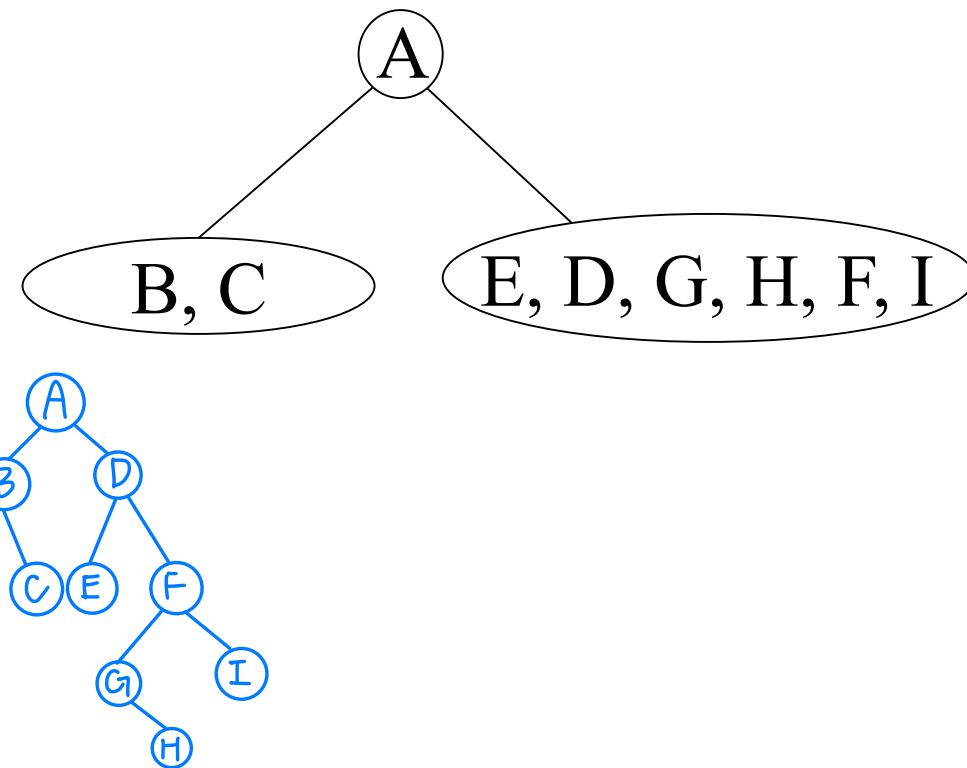
preorder: A B C (D E F G H I)

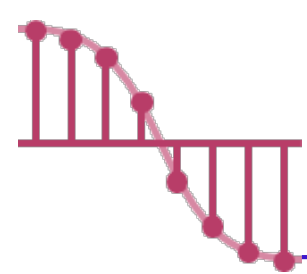
inorder: B C A (E D G H F I)



preorder: A B C D E F G H I

inorder: B C A E D G H F I





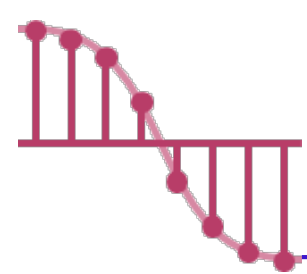
Stack permutation $3/4$

- So, we can show that the number of distinct permutations obtainable by passing the numbers 1 through n through a stack is equal to the number of distinct binary trees with n nodes.
- Example : if we start with the numbers 1, 2, and 3, then the possible permutations obtainable by a stack are

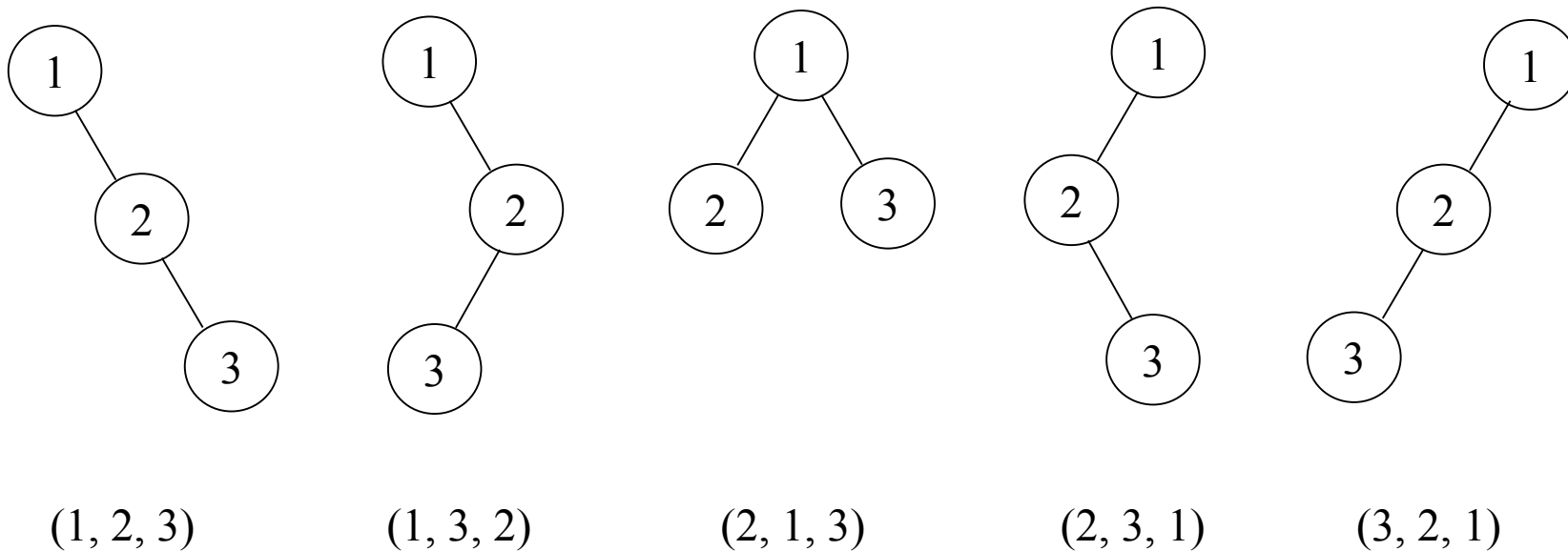
(1,2,3) (1,3,2) (2,1,3) (2,3,1) (3,2,1).

Example. If $n=3$,

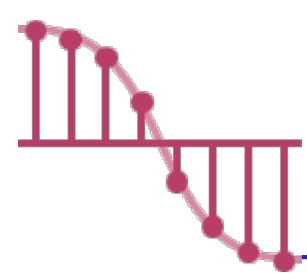
push 1 → pop → push 2 → pop → push 3 → pop	123
push 1 → pop → push 2 → push 3 → pop → pop	132
push 1 → push 2 → push 3 → pop → pop → pop	321
push 1 → push 2 → pop → pop → push 3 → pop	213
push 1 → push 2 → pop → push 3 → pop → pop	231



Stack permutation $4/4$



Binary trees corresponding to five permutation.

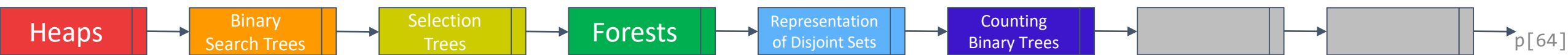


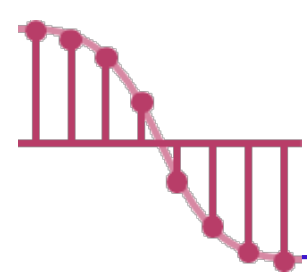
Matrix Multiplication _{1/2}

- The number of distinct binary trees is equal to the number of distinct inorder permutations obtainable from binary trees having the preorder permutation, $1, 2, \dots, n$.
- Computing the product of n matrices are related to the distinct binary tree problem.

$$M_1 * M_2 * \dots * M_n$$

$n = 3$	$(M_1 * M_2) * M_3$
	$M_1 * (M_2 * M_3)$
$n = 4$	$((M_1 * M_2) * M_3) * M_4$
	$(M_1 * (M_2 * M_3)) * M_4$
	$M_1 * ((M_2 * M_3) * M_4)$
	$M_1 * (M_2 * (M_3 * M_4))$
	$(M_1 * M_2) * (M_3 * M_4)$





Matrix Multiplication _{2/2}

➤ Let b_n be the **number of different ways** to compute the product of n matrices.

Let $b_1 = 1$, $b_2 = 1$, $b_3 = 2$, and $b_4 = 5$.

$$b_n = \sum_{i=1}^{n-1} b_i b_{n-i}, \quad n > 1$$

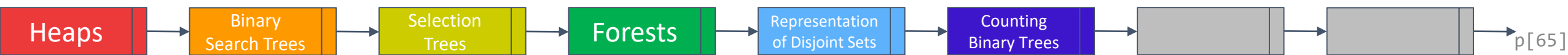
$$(M_1 * M_2 * \dots * M_i) * (M_{i+1} * \dots * M_n)$$

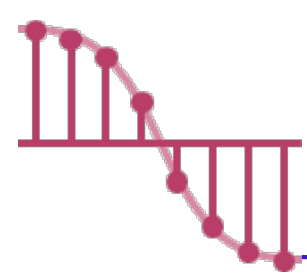
Example.

$$b_3 = b_1 b_2 + b_2 b_1 = 1 + 1 = 2$$

$$b_4 = b_1 b_3 + b_2 b_2 + b_3 b_1 = 2 + 1 + 2 = 5$$

...

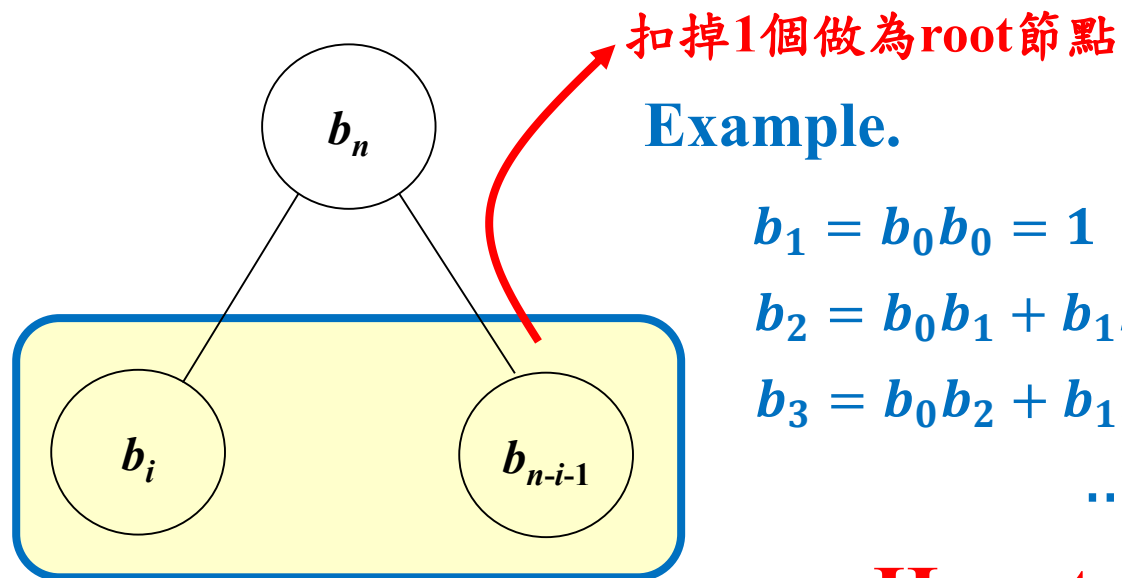




Distinct Binary Trees _{1/3}

➤ Similarly, the number of **distinct binary trees** of n nodes is

$$b_n = \sum_{i=0}^{n-1} b_i b_{n-i-1}, \quad n \geq 1, \text{ and } b_0 = 1$$



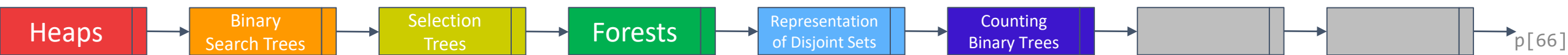
$$b_1 = b_0 b_0 = 1$$

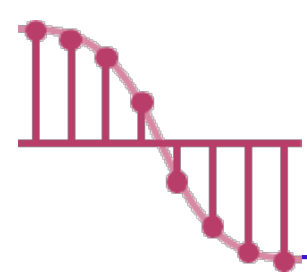
$$b_2 = b_0 b_1 + b_1 b_0 = 1 + 1 = 2$$

$$b_3 = b_0 b_2 + b_1 b_1 + b_2 b_0 = 2 + 1 + 2 = 5$$

...

How to compute b_n ?





Distinct Binary Trees $2/3$

➤ **Trick:** Assume we let $B(x) = \sum_{i \geq 0} b_i x^i$ which is the generating function for the number of binary trees.

➤ By the recurrence relation we get $xB^2(x) = B(x) - 1$

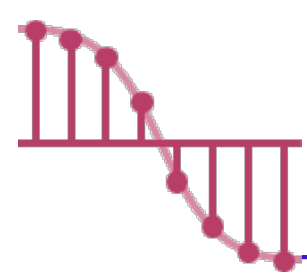
$$B(x) = \frac{1 - \sqrt{1 - 4x}}{2x}$$

二項式定理

$$B(x) = \frac{1}{2x} \left(1 - \sum_{n \geq 0} \binom{1/2}{n} (-4x)^n \right) = \sum_{m \geq 0} \binom{1/2}{m+1} (-1)^m 2^{2m+1} x^m$$

$(-4x)^n = (-1)^n 2^{2n} x^n$

$$b_n = \frac{1}{n+1} \binom{2n}{n} \approx b_n = O(4^n / n^{3/2})$$



Distinct Binary Trees _{3/3}

$$\begin{aligned}
 b_n &= \binom{1/2}{n+1} (-1)^n 2^{2n+1} \\
 &= \frac{\frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{1}{2} - 1\right) \left(\frac{1}{2} - 2\right) \cdots \left(\frac{1}{2} - n\right)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} (-1)^n 2^{2n+1} \\
 &= \frac{\frac{1}{2} \left(1 - \frac{1}{2}\right) \left(2 - \frac{1}{2}\right) \cdots \left(n - \frac{1}{2}\right)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^{2n+1} \\
 &= \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)^{n+1} \frac{1(2-1)(4-1) \cdots (2n-1)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^{2n+1} \\
 &= \frac{1(2-1)(4-1) \cdots (2n-1)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^n \\
 &= \frac{1(1)(3) \cdots (2n-1)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^n \\
 &= \frac{1(1)(3) \cdots (2n-1)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^n \frac{2 \cdot 4 \cdot 6 \cdot 8 \cdots (2n)}{2 \cdot 4 \cdot 6 \cdot 8 \cdots (2n)} \\
 &= \frac{1(1)(3) \cdots (2n-1)}{(n+1)(n)(n-1)(n-2) \cdots 1} 2^n \frac{2 \cdot 4 \cdot 6 \cdot 8 \cdots (2n)}{2^n \cdot 1 \cdot 2 \cdot 3 \cdots (n)} \\
 &= \frac{(2n)!}{(n+1)(n!)} 2^n \frac{1}{2^n \cdot (n!)} = \frac{1}{n+1} \binom{2n}{n}
 \end{aligned}$$

Example.

$$b_1 = \frac{1}{2} \binom{2}{1} = \frac{2}{2} = 1$$

$$b_2 = \frac{1}{3} \binom{4}{2} = \frac{6}{3} = 2$$

$$b_3 = \frac{1}{4} \binom{6}{3} = \frac{20}{4} = 5$$

...

$$\approx b_n = O(4^n / n^{3/2})$$

